

Applied Linguistics

(ENG522)

Virtual University of Pakistan

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LANGUAGE IN SOCIETY

Outline:

o Language in Society

- o Language and society
- o Language Diversity and Contact
- o Language and Gender
- o Language and Identity
- o Language and Power
- o Language and Law

Topic-035: Language and Society

It is the descriptive study of the effect of any and all aspects of society, including cultural norms, expectations, and context, on the way language is used, and the effects of language use on society. Sociolinguistics differs from sociology of language in that the focus of sociolinguistics is the effect of the society on the language, while the sociology of language focuses on language's effect on the society.

Sociolinguistics overlaps to a considerable degree with pragmatics. It is historically closely related to linguistic anthropology and the distinction recently.

It also studies how language varieties differ between groups separated by certain social variables, e.g., ethnicity, religion, status, gender, level of education, age, etc., and how creation and adherence to these rules is used to categorize individuals in social or socioeconomic classes. As the usage of a language varies from place to place, language usage also varies among social classes, and these sociolects are studied in sociolinguistics.

Linguistic structure and/or behavior may either influence or determine social structure. This is the view that is behind the Whorfian hypothesis. The claim that the structure of a language influences how its speakers view the world is today most usually associated with the linguist E.Sapir and his student B.L.Whorf. However, it can be traced back to others, particularly to W. von Humboldt. Today the claim usually referred to as the Sapir-Whorf hypothesis or the Whorfian hypothesis. Sapir acknowledged the close relationship between language and culture maintaining that they were inextricably related so that you could not understand or appreciate the one without knowledge of the other. "Human beings do not live in the objective world alone or alone in the world of social activity as ordinarily understood, but are very much at the mercy of the particular language which has become the medium of expression for their society. It is quite an illusion to imagine that one adjusts to reality essentially without the use of language and that language is merely an incidental means of solving specific problems of communication or reflection.

The fact of the matter is that “the real world” is to a large extent unconsciously built up on the language habits of the of the group... “Words carrying them a myriad possibilities for connecting us to other human beings.” (Duranti)

In short, language and society have strong influence on each other. Both are part and parcel of each other so we cannot strongly oppose the influence of one on another.

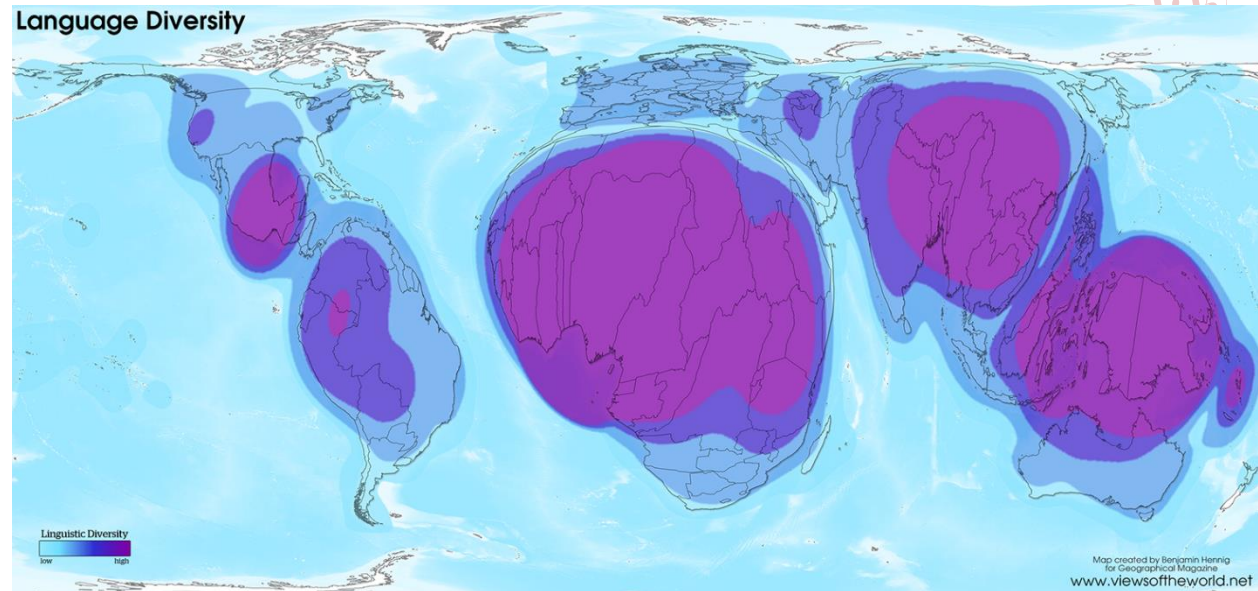
Topic-036: Language Diversity and Contact

We live in a multilingual world. Approximately seven thousand spoken languages and innumerable spoken dialects and sign languages are in use around the world, some with millions of speakers and others with only a few. No matter how “big” or “small,” each language is capable of expressing infinitely generative concepts and ideas. Linguistic diversity is an inherently enabling condition to its speakers and humankind—a resource to be protected and promoted—as each language is the repository of immense knowledge built over centuries of development and use. Linguistic diversity is unevenly distributed across populations and regions. As noted in Austin 2008 (cited under General Overviews), 96 percent of the world’s languages are spoken by just 4 percent of the world’s people. Papua New Guinea, for example, has a population of about 6.4 million but is home to more than 830 spoken languages—17 percent of the world’s total—making it one of the most linguistically diverse countries on earth. At the same time, 96 percent of the world’s people speak at least one of the world’s “major” languages—about 275 in all—which constitute 4 percent of all languages spoken. Among the most spoken languages, Chinese Mandarin has more than a billion speakers, English has 760 million, Hindi has 490 million, Spanish has 400 million, and Arabic has 200 million speakers. There are abundant varieties of all of these languages. Even when a language is numerically dominant in its autochthonous region, it may have a subordinate status. This foregrounds a key issue in linguistic diversity in education: the status of a language mirrors the social, economic, and political standing of its speakers. Thus, official policies specifying the medium-of-instruction in schools are not necessarily or even primarily based on linguistic considerations, but are tied to larger power relations. Many children are denied an education in their mother tongue because they are members of socially repressed groups, despite conclusive international research showing the educational benefits of mother tongue schooling. Moreover, through policies that marginalize nondominant tongues and their speakers, and via processes of globalization, nondominant languages are rapidly becoming displaced by dominant ones. A 2003 report by the United Nations, for example (cited under International Reports on Linguistic Diversity), predicts the loss of 95 percent of all languages spoken by century’s end. The study of linguistic diversity encompasses all of these processes, including how languages are acquired; language pedagogy; individual and societal impacts of bi/multilingualism; policy and political issues; and language maintenance, revitalization, and loss. Addressing these issues requires multidisciplinary perspectives, and the references here reflect that multidisciplinaryity.

There are many attempts to understand and map this diversity of languages around the world. The Ethnologue database as one of the most comprehensive projects lists exactly 7,099 individual languages in a comprehensive geographic database that many of the above-mentioned statistics

are based upon. An even more detailed account when looking at the real diversity of language provides Glottolog of the Max Planck Institute for the Science of Human History in Germany. Glottolog “aims to provide complete references on the world’s languages”. It also looks at the distribution of dialects and consists of almost 8,500 entries. Besides detailed linguistic information, this database includes basic geographic information about the origins of languages, their families and their dialects.

Language diversity map



The Glottolog database was used in this cartogram feature to highlight the geographic distribution of language diversity around the world. The main locations of each entry from the database were used to calculate the density (and diversity) of languages in their spatial distribution. The cartogram therefore shows larger areas where there is a relatively higher diversity of languages. This is also reflected in the differently shaded colours that are overlaid.

The highest language diversity in the world can be found in Africa and Asia, both with more than 2,000 living languages. On the other end of the geographic spectrum lies Europe with only around 250 living languages and dialects spoken there.

How vulnerable languages are can be seen even in Europe with its relatively low language diversity. UNESCO’s Atlas of the World’s Languages in Danger as a tool to monitor the status of endangered languages and the trends in linguistic diversity at the global level lists 11 languages in the United Kingdom alone that have a certain degree of endangerment. Most critically endangered are Cornish and Manx on the Isle of Man, two of 14 languages in Europe with this most severe status. Both languages are now subject to a certain extent of revival efforts.

The authors of the Handbook of Endangered Languages estimate that by the end of the century 50 to 90 per cent of the currently spoken languages could be extinct. First affected will be the approximately 500 nearly extinct languages that often only have a few (sometimes even only one) known speakers left. Endangered languages face similar fates as endangered species in nature.

Such highly endangered languages include the Bishuo language in Cameroon for which there was only one known native speaker left in the last records. In North America, many of the nearly extinct languages are to be found among the native populations along the west coast. One example is the Klallam language, for which there were still 5 speakers recorded in the 1990 Census. It now is regarded as extinct with its last native speaker having died in 2014, although a few second language speakers remain.

Projects like the Endangered Languages Project aim to utilise the internet in their efforts to raise awareness for endangered languages and work towards the future preservation of today's language diversity.

Language diversity in Pakistan

The linguistic situation of Pakistan is very complex. There are various regional languages but Urdu has a unique status. It is the language of majority province and dominant ethnic group so it enjoys supremacy. But, at the same time Punjabis are dominated linguistically and culturally by Urdu and English speaking communities. We also need to take into consideration the accommodating and eclectic nature of Punjabi, the 'soft' boundaries of Punjabi and Urdu, and the element of mutual intelligibility is instrumental in the spread of Urdu. During the recent years children of Punjabis do not have Punjabi as their first language. And, Urdu has taken its place. As far as Sindhi, Baluchi, Pashto are concerned according to Saigol (1993):

- Sindhis makeup 26.6%,
- Baluchis 5.1%
- Pathans 13.1% of the population

The linguistic picture is quite complex as in Sindh, Sindhi is spoken in rural Sindh whereas Urdu in urban Sindh, and Gujrati in influential minorities. In N.W.F.P. Pashto is the language of majority, though one district Hazara uses Hindko. Despite the smallest population Baluchistan has multiple languages: Baluchi, Pashto, Brohi and a sprinkling of Sraiki and Punjabi. Regional and ethnic sentiments in the form of Sindhi and Baluchi nationalism have close links with Sindhi and Baluchi languages as one source of identity. Also, in this regard the issues of identity and ideology and the issues of power play a vital role.

Topic-037: Language and Gender

Sex Versus Gender: Sex refers to biological differences while gender refers to the cultural construction of male and female characteristics.

"The ways members of the two sexes are perceived, evaluated and expected to behave." (what different cultures make of sex.)

Gender Boundaries: We demand that the categories of male and female be discrete. Since gender is culturally constructed the boundaries are conceptual rather than physical. The boundaries are dynamic, e.g. now it is acceptable for men to wear earrings. Boundaries require markers to indicate gender such as: ☐ Voice ☐ Physique ☐ Dress ☐ Behaviour ☐ Hair style ☐ Kinetics ☐ Language use

Gender roles: These are tasks and activities a culture assigns to the sexes – expected ways of behaving based on society's definition of masculine and feminine

Gender stereotypes: Oversimplified but strongly held ideas of the characteristics of men and women.

Gender stratification: An unequal distribution of rewards (socially valued resources, power, prestige, and personal freedom) between men and women, reflecting their different positions in social hierarchy – a division in society where all members are hierarchically ranked according to gender

Gender ideology: A system of thoughts and values that legitimizes sex roles, statuses and customary behavior.

Gender is an important dimension of social inequality. Gender stratification frequently takes the form of patriarchy whereby men dominate women:

- Do women in our society have a second class status relative to men?
- If so How?
- How do we measure gender stratification?

Men and women are socialized to express themselves in different ways in accordance with cultural norms that teach and reinforce different gender roles.

Three issues to be considered here are:

1. Do women and men speak a different language - genderlect? – Do they speak differently?
2. Do women and men behave differently in conversations? – Use language differently
3. Gender bias in English

Genderlects: Men often use socially disfavored variants of sociolinguistic variables while women tend to avoid these in favor of socially more favored variants.

Men	Women
What a terrific idea!	What a divine idea!
Shit! You've put the peanut butter in the fridge again!	Oh dear! You've put the peanut butter in the fridge again!

Phonological variations

What motivates boys to choose /in/ and girls /ing/ /in/ form is used in informal settings and /ing/ in more formal contexts. The /ing/ variant therefore carries social meaning – i.e. it symbolizes formality, so/ing/may also be associated with compliance and politeness formality, politeness, etc.

Men	Women
Less use of post-vocalic /-r/	greater use of post-vocalic /-r/
dis and dat	this and that
Double negation	single negation

Grammatical Variants: Boys used non-standard form more than girls.

Grammatical Variants

1. non-standard -s	They calls me all the names under the sun
2. non-standard has	You just has to do what the teachers tell you.
3. non-standard was	You was with me, wasn't you?
4. negative concord	It ain't got no pedigree or nothing.
5. non-standard never	I never went to school today.
6. non-standard what	Are you the little bastards what hit my son over the head?
7. non-standard do	She cadges, she do.
8. non-standard come	I come down here yesterday.
9. ain't = auxiliary have	I ain't seen my Nan for nearly seven years.
10. ain't = auxiliary be	Course I ain't going to the Avenue.
11. ain't = copula	You ain't no boss.

Jenny Cheshire – adventure playground use. Boys used non-standard form more than girls

Intonation: Intonation refers to the combination of rhythm, volume and pitch overlaying entire utterances.

- In general women use wider range of pitches and more rapid shift in volume and velocity.
- In other words women talk melodically and faster than men who are more monotone and slower.

What does talking melodically and faster imply? (emotionality and natural impulses)

What does talking in a monotone and slower imply? (control and restraint)

Masculine speech melodies can be heard to be metaphors for control female speech melodies as uncontrolled women's speech behaviour is negatively evaluated in relation to male norms.

Women's frequent changes in pitch and volume may serve the function of attracting and holding the listeners attention.

Because rising pitch is an indicator of questions some linguists believe that when women use rising pitches they are interpreted as hesitant, uncertain, and lacking assertiveness.

Tag questions: Women use more tag questions than men. Affective tags "are used not to signal uncertainty on the part of the speaker, but to indicate concern for the addressee":

- 1) Open the door for me, could you?
- 2) His portraits are quite static by comparison, aren't they?

Affective tags are further subdivided into two kinds:

- 1) Softeners like the first example above, which conventionally mitigate the force of what would otherwise be an impolite demand.
- 2) Facilitative tags like the second example, which invite the listener to take a conversational turn to comment on the speaker's assertion.

Explanation for differences: Following points express the causes behind these differences:

- 1) Subordinate groups must be polite
- 2) Woman's role as guardian of society's values
- 3) Vernacular forms express machismo - men who act like women are strongly criticized, men consciously or unconsciously strive toward speech norms that reject styles associated with women ``Covert prestige`` (speaking white) • because women model their behaviour on middle class styles men covertly prefer “working class” speech
- 4) Women have less access to power and status: they ‘make up’ for this by their preferences for the prestige (standard) linguistic forms. This is thought to give them respect and some status.
- 5) Women are more conscious of prestige norms and strive to use them because they are judged by their social self-presentation and are aware of strong social sanction if they do not conform – linguistic insecurity
- 6) Women and men are socialized in different ways which is reflected in their language use patterns.
- 7) Women may be more status conscious than men because: – society sets more standards for women and – Women's typical activities do not confer status itself. – Women don't want to use lower class language because of the associations made with lower class people
- 8) Women and men have different networks which lead to women and men using different ways of speaking.
- 9) Many of the jobs available to women require standard form

Gender Identity and Language in Pakistan

The study of gender and language in sociolinguistics started with Robin Lakoff's 1975 book named ‘Language and Woman's Place’. Prominent scholars in this regard include Deborah Tannen, Penelope Eckert, Janet Holmes, Mary Bucholtz, Kira Hall and Deborah Cameron. Robin Lakoff identified a "women's register", that is used to maintain women's (inferior) role in society. She argued that women tend to use linguistic forms that reflect and reinforce a subordinate role. Examples in this regard include minimal responses, ‘mm’ and ‘yeah’ etc. Another example is of the use of questions. For instance, for men a question is a genuine request for information and for women it can often be a rhetorical means of engaging the other's conversational contribution or of acquiring attention. There can also be examples of turn-taking. Women's desire for turn-taking gives rise to complex forms of interaction in relation to the more regimented form of turn-taking commonly exhibited by men. Another example can be of ‘tag questions’. In Pakistani context women use more tag questions which shows the social positioning of women in our society.

Topic-038: Language and Identity

If we take the position that linguistic communities are not homogeneous and consensual, rather they are heterogeneous and conflicted, we need to understand how power is implicated in relationships between individuals, communities, and nations. This is directly relevant to our understanding of the relationship between language and identity. Bourdieu (1977) notes, the value

ascribed to speech cannot be understood apart from the person who speaks, and the person who speaks cannot be understood apart from larger networks of social relationships.

Every time we speak, we are negotiating and renegotiating our sense of self in relation to the larger social world, and reorganizing that relationship across time and space. **What is implicated in this negotiation of identity?**

- gender
- race
- class
- ethnicity
- sexual orientation
- age

Weedon (1997) states that, it is through language that a person negotiates a sense of self within and across a range of sites at different points in time, and it is through language that a person gains access to or is denied access to powerful social networks that give learners the opportunity to speak. Linguistic identities as double-edged swords: They function in a positive and productive way to give people a sense of belonging. They define an “us” in opposition to a “them”. As a means of communicating values, beliefs and customs, language has an important social function and fosters feelings of group identity and solidarity. It is the means by which culture and its traditions and shared values may be conveyed and preserved.

Notions of language and dialect are closely related to the issues of identity. There are social dialects and regional dialects which relate to the idea of identity in various ways. Dyer’s (2000, 2002) and Wassink and Dyer’s (2004) studies of communities in Corby, UK, Kingston, and Jamaica, utilize language ideology model in two very different dialect contact contexts.

Dyer’s (2000) study of Corby investigated changes occurring in the local English dialect due to the immigration of large numbers of Scots to work in a newly built steelworks in the town. (Corby is around 100 miles north of London and 300 miles south of Glasgow, Scotland.) A major point of study was the social significance or meaning of the identity projected by young Corby people who sounded Scottish but had no Scottish ancestry. It is interesting since Scottish, and more particularly Glaswegian English (from whence many of the Corby migrants hailed) is often viewed as a stigmatized variety (Macaulay, 1977). Wassink and Dyer (2004) further examined how phonological features in Kingston and Corby, considered stigmatized by some speakers because of their association with either a rural Jamaican or a Scottish background, were apparently being used as symbols of local pride by the younger generations.

A variationist analysis of the data from these studies might have concluded that speakers were indexing a Scottish identity in using Scottish variants, or a rural identity in the use of traditionally rural variants in the Jamaican context. However, an analysis of speaker ideologies showed that the salient social categories for speakers had changed over time. The opposition between Scottish and English that was salient for the oldest speakers in the Corby study had apparently been replaced by an opposition between Corby and the neighbouring town of Kettering for the youngest speakers.

The perception of identity that sociolinguists have now is more complex than at the outset. But, also undoubtedly it is more satisfying and more explanatory of variation.

Topic-039: Language and Power

As always, when “power” is spoken of, the first association is that of the power of man over man, of power as suppression of the free will by “commands” and “obedience”. Power can easily appear in this connection as the root of all evil in human societies and as the opposite of freedom as such. Yet the problem of power is in truth more complex. And especially in the case of the “power of language”, the problem is multi-layered. The “power of language” not only means language in the service of power; language can also undermine power. And above all, as language, it possesses itself power of a very special kind. The relation of language and power is ambivalent.

We have spoken in the first place of the “power of language” as the “language of power”. What is here meant in general is that all power must finally use language, be conveyed through it and manifested in it, to command, that is, to speak, where others must only hear and obey. In a more narrow sense, this understanding of the “power of language” is a matter of the instrumentalisation of language for the purpose of exercising power. The command of language itself becomes a means of power: as political rhetoric and demagoguery, as ideology and bedazzlement, as seduction through words, as “persuasion”. This power of language extends from large political contexts, from the manner of speaking and thus also of thinking that dictatorships and totalitarian orders force upon dominated people, to the small scenes of everyday life, to the arts of seduction of advertising, the sales tricks of telephone marketing, or the menacing undertones at the workplace or in the family. This first interpretation of the “power of language” already shows two things. On the one hand, that language and speaking must be distinguished in the exercise of power. The possibilities of language from the way in which language is actually used in spoken words. On the other hand, the interpretation also gives a presentiment that the power which is exercised through language always already bears within itself the germ of its counter-power. For the language of political demagogues and tyrants can be seen through as language. And by means of language itself. So that language conveys the power of violence or domination and at the same time undermines it.

For everyone can take possession of the power of language and in this way see through and unmask the power exercised through language.

Seen clearly, the “power of language” is thus not the fraternisation of language with command and obedience; this uses language for goals other than those which are inherent in it. The genuine, inner power of language is rather to undermine this other kind of power. Since usurpation and violent rule as well as legitimate rule must ultimately rely on the power of language in order to be exercised, to command and to assert itself, precisely language is the vulnerable spot of the commanding power. For the concealed intentions of a command can be seen through. The command can be obeyed, but it can also be refused; above all, it can be understood and so interpreted or re-interpreted quite as those might like who are supposed to obey it, but who for their part possess the infinitely divisible and epidemically disseminating power of language.

This mechanism can be generalised beyond the political sphere. Without a doubt, the power of language consists in the fact that it can be used for rhetorical persuasion. But its own authentic

power consists at least equally in the fact that every “putting into language” already harbours within itself the kernel of doubt. Every attempt to persuade others with and through language is always also an effort to make oneself understood. And regardless of how rhetorically skilled the speaker may be, in the end he inevitably places his words, as language, under discussion.

Whoever speaks, depends on language. And even the most skilful speaker cannot monopolise the power of language. Ultimately the “power of language” lies not with the speaker, but with language itself. The power of language belongs to language itself. And so this power belongs to everyone who possesses language. Whoever has a command of language has part in its power!

Language is not merely an instrument in the hands of power, but also always a counter-power which cannot be restricted and repressed. Power can rest on many factors; for instance, on the possession of weapons or money. These are in short supply; some possess them and others do not. This scarcity establishes the power of man over man. And it shows the ubiquitous social connection of power and inequality.

This connection, however, does not obtain for the power of language. As with knowledge generally, so with language and the power that proceeds from it: it is illimitably divisible and multiple. Whoever shares knowledge loses nothing of his own share or possession. Everyone can gain knowledge without taking it away from anyone else. Similarly, everyone can attain the power of language without disputing anyone else’s right to it.

At exactly this point begins the empowerment through language that marks the work of the Goethe Institute. It is an empowerment through the genuine power of language, not through a specific content or body of knowledge which is conveyed through language. And it is within this frame that the decentralised, world-wide projects of the Goethe Institute are to be understood.

Topic-040: Language and Law

The use of language is crucial to any legal system, not only in the same way that it is crucial to politics in general, but also in two special respects.

Definition: “Legal language is the type of language used by lawyers and other legal professionals in the course of their work”.

Spoken language is just as indispensable to the legal process. The legal implications of language continue to extend far beyond the courtroom – to interactions between police and suspects, to conversations between lawyers and their clients, etc. A little reflection is enough to notice how essential language is to the legal enterprise.

To know how this ‘special dialect’ came about and how it differs from ‘ordinary English’, researchers have turned to the language of the law as a linguistic phenomenon in its own right.⁰ In fact, one of the first scholarly publications about law and language was David Mellinkoff’s monumental work, *The Language of the Law*, published in 1963.

Example Controlling Law Statutory Law: *New Columbia Code § 22-2401. Murder in the first degree - Purposeful killing; Whoever, being of sound memory and discretion, kills another purposely, either of deliberate and premeditated malice or by means of poison...is guilty of murder in the first degree. New Columbia Code § 22-2403. Murder in the second degree.(a) Whoever with malice aforethought, except as provided in Sec. 22-2401, kills another, ^[1]_{SEP}is guilty of murder in*

the second degree.(b) In the District of Columbia, second degree murder is a lesser included offense of first degree murder, and under an indictment charging first degree murder, the defendant may be found guilty of the necessarily included offense of second degree murder. Punishment^[1] New Columbia Code § 22-2404. Penalty for murder in first and second degrees.(a) A person convicted of murder in the first degree shall be sentenced to a minimum of 30 years from the date of the commencement of the sentence.(b) Whoever is guilty of murder in the second degree shall be sentenced to a period of incarceration of not more than life, except that the court may impose a prison sentence in excess of 40 years only in accordance with § 24-203.1(b-2).^[1] Developed by Georgetown University Law Center, D.C. Street Law Clinic page 5New Columbia Code § 22-2405. Penalty for manslaughter.^[1] Whoever is guilty of manslaughter shall be sentenced to a period of imprisonment not exceeding 30 years.

- We can find a lot of legal terms in this example such as **Murder in the first degree. When someone is accused of murder in first degree it means that he** or she kills another purposely, either of deliberate and premeditated malice or by means of poison.
- If we look closely we can see that there's a special code when you refer to a specific law. You must use a key symbol, similar to a G key on music. For example, New Columbia Code § 22-2401.
- New Columbia Code § 22-2403. Murder in the second degree.
 - Whoever with malice aforethought, except as provided in Sec. 22-2401, kills another, is guilty of murder in the second degree.

The use of technical words can be seen below:

Manslaughter: The unlawful killing of one human by another without express or implied intent to do injury.

Legislature: An officially elected or otherwise selected body of people vested with the responsibility and power to make laws for a political unit, such as a state or nation.

Prosecution Attorney: A lawyer empowered to prosecute cases on behalf of a government and its people. Also called prosecution, prosecutor.

Law and signs

Bentham (1782) suggests that a law is an assemblage of signs. There are insurmountable objections to Bentham's idea that a law is an assemblage of signs. Law (in the sense that is relevant here) is the systematic regulation of the life of a community by standards treated as binding the members of the community and its institutions. A law is a standard that is part of such a systematic form of regulation. Many such standards have no canonical linguistic formulation (that is, no form of words which, according to law, determines the content of the standard). Lawyers in common law systems are familiar with such norms: murder may be a criminal offence (or slander may be a tort, or certain agreements may be enforceable as contracts...), not because of the expression by any person or institution of a rule that it should be so, but because the institutions of the legal system customarily treat murder as an offence (or slander as a tort...).

Language and legal interpretation

What is the relationship between the language that is used to make legal standards, and the law itself? If the law provides that a form of words determines the content of a standard (such as a term of a contract, or a criminal offence, or a duty of the executor of a will), what is the effect of the use of the words? The question seems to demand general theories of the meaning of language and of the interpretation of communicative acts. If there are no general theories to be had, then there is no general answer to the question. A theory of meaning and interpretation of legal language would not be very much less general than a theory of meaning and interpretation of language.

The pragmatics of legal language

The pragmatics of legal language is a vast field, because the term ‘pragmatics’ could be used as a heading for much of what modern legal scholars and theorists have described as grounds for interpretation (and also as a heading for much that they have described as the theory of interpretation -since ‘pragmatics’ is a term not only for effects of communication, but also for the study of those effects). For example, the work of the judges in *Garner v Burr* can be described as an exercise in pragmatic inference. The technical sound of the word ‘pragmatics’ may suggest that it is a term for the theoretical study of its object; in fact, the field of study is what might be inferred from the fact that someone said what they said in the context in which they said it. No object of study is less apt for theorising.

The Semantic Sting

Discussions of the pragmatics of legal language are expressly or implicitly premised on a view of the relation between a law-making use of language, and the law that is made. It is the view that if a body or person is authorised to make law, it makes the law that it communicates by its use of language. This can be called ‘the communication model’. It must be qualified in at least four ways, because the law itself regulates the making of law:

1. the law that is made will be limited by any limit on the power of the law maker (as to the substance of the law that it can make, or as to the process by which it can lawfully make law), and
2. rules of law may qualify the law that is made, in a variety of ways that are not susceptible of any general characterisation[4] (see Solum 2013 for an extensive discussion of ways in which the law that is made by a communicative act may be qualified), and
3. courts may resolve indeterminacies in the effect of an act of law making, and where they do so, their decisions may have conclusive legal effect, and
4. if a court departs from what the law maker communicated (for good reasons or bad), the decision of the court may have conclusive legal effect (for the parties, and also for the future if the decision is treated as a precedent).

Lesson-09

ICT AND LANGUAGE TEACHING

Outline:

- **ICT and Language Teaching**

-
- Literacy and Multimodality
 - Language and ICT
 - Introduction to CALL
 - Types of CALL Programs
 - Types of CALL Activities
 - ICT Translation and Interpreting

Topic-041: ICT and Language Teaching

ICT is generally defined as technology functioning to support the process of conveying information and communication. With the development of ICT, the communicator and communicant can communicate through telephone, internet, email, satellite, television, video conference, and the like.

The information and communication technologies encompass of hardware and software. It includes storing, retrieving, modifying, controlling and transmitting and receiving information or data (Moursund, 2005). For the integration of information and communication technologies in language teaching certain conditions have to be met. These include computer facilities, high speed internet connection, ICT professional and good infrastructures needed (prani, 2004). We need to apply the technology in language classroom in order to get result. We also need utilize different approaches to tackle the problems. With the help of technological tools, teacher can send, store, process and receive education information from one place to another (Buseni, 2013).

Topic-042: Literacy and Multimodality

A multimodal text conveys meaning through a combination of two or more modes, for example, a poster conveys meaning through a combination of written language, still image, and spatial design. Each mode has its own specific task and function (Kress, 2010, p. 28) in the meaning making process, and usually carries only a part of the message in a multimodal text. In a picture book, the print and the image both contribute to the overall telling of the story but do so in different ways.

Images may simply illustrate or expand on the written story, or can be used to tell different aspects of the story, even contradicting the written words (Guijarro and Sanz, 2009, p. 107). Effective multimodal authors creatively integrate modes in various configurations to coherently convey the meaning required, 'moving the emphasis backwards and forwards between the various modes' (Cope and Kalantzis, 2009. p. 423) throughout the text.

The complexity of the relationships between the various meaning or semiotic systems in a text increases proportionately with the number of modes involved. For example, a film text is a more complex multimodal text than a poster as it dynamically combines the semiotic systems of moving image, audio, spoken language, written language, space, and gesture (acting) to convey meaning.

Modes

The following overview of how meaning can be composed through different semiotic resources for each mode (spoken language, written language, visual, audio, gestural, and spatial) is

informed by The New London Group (2000), Cope and Kalantzis, (2009), and Kalantzis, Cope, Chan, and Dalley-Trim (2016).

Currently, there is extensive pedagogic support for teaching meaning making through spoken and written language, and some resources developed to support teaching meaning making in the visual mode, through ‘viewing’. However, as yet there are few resources available for teaching young students how to comprehend and compose meaning in the other modes.

Written meaning

Conveyed through written language via handwriting, the printed page, and the screen. Choices of words, phrases, and sentences are organised through linguistic grammar conventions, register (where language is varied according to context), and genre (knowledge of how a text type is organised and staged to meet a specific purpose).

Spoken (oral) meaning

Conveyed through spoken language via live or recorded speech and can be monologic or dialogic. Choice of words, phrases, and sentences are organised through linguistic grammar conventions, register, and genre. Composing oral meaning includes choices around mood, emotion, emphasis, fluency, speed, volume, tempo, pitch, rhythm, pronunciation, intonation, and dialect.

Visual meaning

Conveyed through choices of visual resources and includes both still image and moving images. Visual resources include: framing, vectors, symbols, perspective, gaze, point of view, colour, texture, line, shape, casting, saliency, distance, angles, form, power, involvement/detachment, contrast, lighting, naturalistic/non-naturalistic, camera movement, and subject movement.

Audio meaning

Conveyed through sound, including choices of music, ambient sounds, noises, alerts, silence, natural/unnatural sounds, and use of volume, beat, tempo, pitch, and rhythm.

Spatial meaning

Conveyed through design of spaces, using choices of spatial resources including: scale, proximity, boundaries, direction, layout, and organisation of objects in the space. Space extends from design of the page in a book, a page in a graphic novel or comic, a webpage on the screen, framing of shots in moving image, to the design of a room, architecture, streetscapes, and landscapes.

Gestural meaning

Conveyed through choices of body movement; facial expression, eye movements and gaze, demeanour, gait, dance, acting, action sequences. It also includes use of rhythm, speed, stillness and angles, including ‘timing, frequency, ceremony and ritual’ (Cope and Kalantzis, 2009. p. 362).

Types of multimodal texts

Multimodality does not necessarily mean use of technology, and multimodal texts can be paper-based, live, or digital.

- Paper-based multimodal texts include picture books, text books, graphic novels, comics, and posters.
- Live multimodal texts, for example, dance, performance, and oral storytelling, convey meaning through combinations of various modes such as gestural, spatial, audio, and oral language.
- Digital multimodal texts include film, animation, slide shows, e-posters, digital stories, podcasts, and web pages.

Why teaching multimodal literacy is important?

Effective contemporary communication requires young people to be able to comprehend, respond to, and compose meaning through multimodal texts in diverse forms.

To do this, students need to know how each mode uses unique semiotic resources to convey meaning (Kress, 2010) and this needs to be taught explicitly. In a visual text, for example, representation of people, objects, and places can be conveyed using choices of visual semiotic resources such as line, shape, size, line and symbols, while written language would convey this meaning through sentences using noun groups and adjectives (Callow, 2013) written or typed on paper or a screen.

Students also need to be taught how authors juggle the different modes to determine the most apt way to tell their story, and how meaning in a multimodal text is ‘orchestrated’ through the selection and use of different modes in various combinations (Jewitt, 2009. p.15).

Modes and meaning making: three sub-stands

Students need to understand how authors can control and use the unique semiotic resources available in each different mode used in a multimodal text. Currently, the Victorian Curriculum organises teaching about language around three types of meaning organised as sub-stands: Expressing and developing ideas; Language for interaction; and Text structure and organisation. Similarly, teaching meaning making in other modes can be approached through three sub-stands.

1. Expressing and developing ideas

What is happening in the text? Students learn how the different meaning making resources can be used to: construct the nature of the events, the objects and participants involved, and the setting and circumstances in which they occur – who, what, where and when, and to express actions and ideas.

2. Interacting and relating with others

How do we interact with and relate to others? How do we feel? Students learn how design of interactive meaning in a multimodal text includes consideration of the social setting, how interactions between the viewer/reader/listener and the subject can be established, and how to build and maintain relationships. Students need to learn how to express knowledge, skills, feelings, attitudes and opinions, credibility, and power through different modes.

3. Text structure and organisation

How do design and layout build meaning and guide the reader/viewer/listener through the text? Students learn how different modes are used to structure a text in a particular way to create

cohesive and coherent texts, with varying levels of complexity. For example, students learn how the image maker guides the viewer through the text through the deliberate choices of visual design at the level of the whole text, and components within the text. In examining how the image or text is organised, students learn how visual design choices can prioritise some meanings and background others (Painter, Martin, & Unsworth, 2013).

Topic-043: Language and ICT

Present trends in the teaching of foreign languages attempt to react to new challenges and changes in education. The principal most recent trends in the teaching of foreign languages include:

- The teaching focuses on the student. The teacher is becoming a co-learner. This trend is influenced by humanistic pedagogy and psychology with an emphasis on the creative potential of each individual and his or her ability to change himself/ herself. This understanding is undoubtedly influencing the changing roles of teacher and student in education. One of the most powerful drivers of this trend is social constructivist theory. **In a social constructivist perspective, learners construct knowledge from their experiences**, both positive and negative. Learning is an active social process, which means that learning occurs when individuals are actively engaged in social activities. Moreover, constructivism regards each learner as a unique individual, considers his/ her cultural background, and nurtures the responsibility and motivation for learning. Constructivism is often associated with activity theory which understands human activities as complex, socially situated phenomena.
- The concept of autonomous learning is being implemented. Learners are seen as individuals who can and should be autonomous, i.e. be responsible for their own learning climate. Moreover, autonomous education helps students to develop their self-awareness, vision, practicality and freedom of discussion. These attributes serve to aid a student in his/her independent learning.
- Collaborative or cooperative learning is being advocated. Cooperative/ collaborative learning, consists of a range of concepts and techniques for enhancing the value of student-student interaction. However, this type of learning requires the mastering of collaborative communication skills, e.g. agreeing politely, making compromises, explaining. If learners succeed in their acquisition, then they are well equipped not only for language learning but for their future career. Moreover, the teacher might participate in students' collaborative learning by encouraging them to create a pleasant and friendly atmosphere for working together. One of the common examples of collaborative learning in the learning of foreign languages is project work, which enables students to learn together for a purpose other than to get a high score on an exam.
- Curricula subjects are being integrated. That means that students use not only their acquired knowledge but also their skills across curricula. In practice students use English medium to study subjects such as geography, history or mathematics that were originally taught in the native language, in this case in Czech. This type of learning is exploited in

the so-called **Content and Language Integrated Learning (CLIL)**, which involves teaching a curricular subject through the medium of a foreign language.

- Diversity. This aspect might be understood as the mix of students a teacher has in his/ her classrooms in terms of student background, e.g., ethnic, religious, social class and their first language, sex, achievement levels, learning styles, intelligences and learning strategies. Moreover, the boundaries between the directed learning process and the individual processes of learning a foreign language are vanishing. Foreign language teaching does not represent one teaching method anymore and only one textbook, but a learner is exposed to a number of interactive incentives and teaching methods, such as project teaching or teaching with the help of new information and communication technologies.
- Teaching methods are closely interconnected with the latest scientific knowledge from the field of neurolinguistics and psycholinguistics. An example might be an interest in one's self in connection with the research of motivation (for details see Dornyei [4, 5]).
- The concept of multiculturalism is being promoted. Its aim is to make students more sensitive and open to other nationalities and their culture and consequently to make them aware of their own culture, values and beliefs.
- The concept of multilingualism is being implemented. This means that besides the native language, each EU citizen should master another two foreign languages. In practice such a concept requires new teaching methods and wider content teaching.
- The learning of foreign languages is perceived as a lifelong process. Such a process should already involve pre-school learning and extend right through to learning in later life, but it should also cover various professional and personal needs.

All the above mentioned trends/ concepts arise from the Common European Reference Framework for Languages, whose aim is to increase the quality of communication among European citizens with different language and cultural backgrounds and to provide a wide range of recommendations as to how to achieve this. In sum, the main trend in the teaching of foreign languages seems to be a focus on the humanistic aspect of the aims of foreign language teaching, i.e. to perceive the teaching of foreign languages primarily as a means of education towards deep humanity.

Blended learning

There is a prime focus on the fields of knowledge in which citizens acquire the skills and knowledge necessary for effective communication, i.e. on the teaching of foreign languages and ICT. Thus, one might combine and exploit both fields in the so-called blended learning. The term blended learning has become extremely fashionable nowadays, particularly in corporate and higher education settings. In this paper, following Littlejohn & Pegler, **blended learning is perceived as an integration of face-to-face teaching and learning methods with on-line approaches**. In general, blended learning is about a mixture of instructional modalities (i.e. onsite, web-based and self-paced learning), delivery media (e.g. the Internet, classroom sessions, web-based courses, CD-ROMs, video, books, or PowerPoint slides), instructional methods (i.e.

face-to-face or technology-based sessions), and web-based technologies, both synchronous and asynchronous (e.g. chat rooms, wikis, virtual classrooms, conferencing tools, blogs, textbooks or on-line courses). The choice of a blend is usually determined by several factors: the nature of the course content and instructional goals, student characteristics and learning preferences, instructor experience and teaching style, online resources and others. And as Graham states, learners and teachers work together to improve the quality of learning and teaching; the ultimate aim of blended learning being to provide realistic practical opportunities for learners and teachers to make learning independent, useful, sustainable and ever growing.

In this sense, blended learning has become one of the successful learning tools in second language acquisition (SLA). In fact, blended learning has been a major growth point in the English Language Teaching (ELT) industry over the last ten years.

Blended learning in the EFL setting can be defined as a pedagogical approach that combines the effectiveness and socialization opportunities of the classroom with the technologically enhanced active learning possibilities of the online environment. According to De Praeter, a classic example of using the blended learning approach is a course of English as a second language where the instructor decides that all audio-based activities (listening comprehension and oral comprehension) will take place in the classroom while all written text-based activities will take place online (reading comprehension and essay writing).

However, if the EFL course is designed purposefully and meaningfully, and with cultural understanding of students' backgrounds, there are even further benefits of the blended learning approach to the teaching of foreign languages:

- Firstly, eLearning can allow access to the target language culture through the use of Youtube videos, meaningful situational videos, chat rooms or videoconferencing. These tools not only give EFL students greater access to native speakers, but also enable learners to interact and collaborate with their foreign peers.
- Secondly, language is about communication and through exploiting the above mentioned tools students get more exposure to the target language than in traditional language classes. And if learners are appropriately motivated, they might become even more enthusiastic to practise the language frequently outside the more traditional formal instruction settings.
- Thirdly, using wikis, for example, can help students to improve their academic skills of reading and writing. In addition, they can also learn how to conduct basic research and collaborate with fellow students. Yet another advantage of the eLearning component is that the blended course gives students a chance to revisit lectures or seminars.
- Finally, the more frequent tutor feedback means that students are able to practise the language more often and are able to avoid repeating their previous errors.

Autonomous learning

The BL approach inevitably on the one side requires and on the other side supports an independent, autonomous learner. Generally, autonomous learning consists in the need to make the teaching more effective and to exploit a student's potential and particularly his/ her

creativity. To be autonomous, learners need to be able to have some choice in what, where, when and how to study. At the same time, they should feel responsible for their own learning and for the learning of those with whom they interact. Learner autonomy involves learners being aware of their own ways of learning, so as to utilize their strengths and work on their weaknesses.

Intrinsic and social motivation plays a central role in learner's autonomy.

The teacher becomes a partner in such learning process. A form of democratization takes place with students taking on more rights and responsibilities for their own learning. However, autonomous learning does not only mean that learners work alone. In fact, they learn even more if they collaborate with their peers, independently on their teacher. Furthermore, autonomous learning tries to make learners responsible for their learning achievements and consequently, for their own assessment of their work.

Moreover, autonomous learning requires students to think independently. Admittedly, creative teachers tend to promote thinking skills with their students while teaching the content. There are two phases to the learning of content. The first is the so-called internalization. Learners try to construct in their minds the basic ideas, principles, and theories that are inherent in content. The second phase is a process of application. This is when learners use those ideas, principles, and theories as they become relevant in learners' lives. Teachers should strive to cultivate critical thinking at every stage of learning, including initial learning since critical thinking represents a liberating force in education and a powerful resource in one's personal and civic life.

Furthermore, it motivates learners to acquire new knowledge or skills in any field of study they choose.

Both theory and practice prove that learning is a complex process, dependent on the understanding and expertise of the individual teacher faced with the individual students with his/her different learning needs and strategies. And knowledge construction with the aim of allowing learners to develop greater flexibility and awareness of communicative, linguistic, and learning levels needs to be part of any good language course.

Topic-044: Introduction to CALL

Computer-assisted language learning (CALL) was the expression agreed upon at the 1983 TESOL convention in a meeting of all interested participants. This term is widely used to refer to the area of technology and second language teaching and learning despite the fact that revisions for the term are suggested regularly.

Computer Assisted Language Learning (CALL) may be defined as the search for and study of applications of the computer in language teaching and learning (Levy, 1997, p.1).

CALL has come to encompass issues of materials design, technologies, pedagogical theories and modes of instruction. Materials for CALL can include those which are purpose-made for language learning and those which adapt existing computer-based materials, video and other materials (Beatty, 2003, pp. 7-8).

Types of CALL Programs

CALL programs/materials include:

- CALL-specific software: applications designed to develop and facilitate language learning, such as CD-ROMs, web-based interactive language learning exercises/quizzes (see CD-ROM examples for language learning)
- Generic software: applications designed for general purposes, such as word-processors (Word), presentation software (PowerPoint, see an e-book made by students "Many Moons"), and spreadsheet (Excel), that can be used to support language learning (see examples of using Excel for language learning & teaching)
- Web-based learning programs: online dictionaries, online encyclopedias, online concordancers, news/magazine sites, e-texts, web-quests, web publishing, blog, wiki, etc.
- Computer-mediated communication (CMC) programs: synchronous - online chat; asynchronous - email, discussion forum, message board

Types of CALL Activities

- multiple-choice & true/false quizzes
- gap-filling exercise/cloze
- matching
- re-ordering/sequencing
- crossword puzzles
- games
- simulations
- writing & word-processing
- concordancing
- web quests/searching
- web publishing
- online communication (synchronous and asynchronous)

Roles of the computer in language learning and teaching

The following roles can be seen:

- computer as tutor for language drills or skill practice
- computer as a tool for writing, presenting, and researching
- computer as a medium of global communication

How computers can be used in the language class

1. Teaching with one computer in the class

- Delivery of content (PowerPoint, word-processor, Webpages, etc.)
- Classroom activities/discussions mediated by the computer
- Interactive whiteboard

2. Teaching in the computer network room (network-based language teaching)

- Task-based group work /activities
- Computer-mediated communication (CMC): asynchronous/synchronous
- Tandem learning

3. Self-access learning (independent learning) - drills and exercises - word processing - resource searching

4. Distance learning (i.e. individual learners working by themselves, at a place and time of their choice and, to some extent, at a pace and in an order also chosen by themselves.) - delivering online course content - CMC activities: email, discussion forum, chat rooms - tandem learning - community building.

Teaching Learning Advantages and disadvantages

Advantages

- Self-paced or learner-centered
- An active process CALL material is consistent within individual courses.
- Getting to know the students' individual
- Problems and successes with the learning material.
- Working with a group of disciplined students.
- Focusing on the important or more difficult material during class time or tutoring sessions.

Disadvantages

- Quite a few students feel they learn better when guided step by step through a concept.
- The student must be motivated and disciplined to complete a learning program on his own
- A good CALL program, as with all CBE programs, is very expensive to develop.
- Development requires teacher input, but, a great number of teachers see programs
- There is also a lack of suitable software available for CALL today.

To conclude we can say that using Computers to assist language learning and teaching is the certainty and necessity of technological development. However, CALL is not always better than traditional language learning and teaching method.

Topic-045: ICT in Translation and Interpreting

Instrumental skills constitute an indispensable subcomponent of the general translation competence as information and computer technologies have become a vital element of the translator workstation. The ability to use state-of-the-art translation-dedicated tools, programs and applications facilitates the translation process and is crucial for those who want to comply with the contemporary market requirements. The significance of technical skills is corroborated in numerous works by translation scholars and reflected in market needs and translator competence models (PACTE 2011; European Committee for Standardization; Gambier (ed.) 2009; Kelly 2005). As Gouadec (2007) observes, the ability to use various computer, communication and translation-specific technologies constitutes a competitive advantage for those who are willing to make full use of the available resources, increases their employability on the market and the remuneration level in comparison to those who prefer to work in the traditional way (without translation memory and terminology management system at least). Actually, Gouadec goes even further and differentiates between two categories of translation technology users: those who are

satisfied with the basic version of a translator's workstation – the combination of “word processor + translation memory + terminology management system + Internet” and those who are able to use more sophisticated translation tools – e.g. subtitling and localisation software, translation project management systems – stating that the second group is slowly gaining advantage over the first “in terms of added value and remuneration” (Gouadec 2007: 280). As mentioned above, various models present translation competence as a multi-componential construct and list instrumental, technical and information mining skills as its subcomponents. For example, the EMT project enumerates information mining competence and technological competence (Gam-bier (ed.) 2009) while the European norm EN-15038 lists research competence, information acquisition and processing and technical competence (European Committee for Standardization 2006). The model developed by the PACTE group includes instrumental sub-competence (PACTE 2011), whereas Dorothy Kelly mentions professional and instrumental skills (Kelly 2005).

On the basis of the above-mentioned models, we can say that “instrumental competence” requires mastering skills in five areas:

- efficient use of CAT (Computer Aided Translation) tools (including “general” and “specialised” translation technologies),
- ability to use the Internet and communication technologies,
- efficient information mining and terminology management skills,
- document production skills,
- ability to use documentation resources.

These skills have become an inherent and inseparable part of the translation profession and those who want to become efficient and professional providers of translation services should acquire them in the course of their education (at both the BA and MA levels) and professional practice, which is what we aim at in the translation training discussed in the further sections hereof. Modern translation and interpreting industry cannot function properly, offering high quality services, without computers, the Internet and technology. It is generally believed that the Internet and CAT tools facilitate the translation process, make it more efficient and manageable and help translators provide translations of decent quality at a relatively fast pace. Therefore, the competent use of translation technologies has become a prerequisite for anyone wishing to join the translator's profession. CAT tools literacy seems to increase translators' chances to find employment, as more and more translation agencies outsource to translators or project managers under the condition that they are able to use a specific CAT tool.

As demonstrated above, CAT tools, software and Internet resources can be used to develop both the translator's and interpreter's competence. The degree in which CAT tools speed up translation process may depend on various factors, however further research on how the incorporation of CAT tools into translator training influences the development of translator competence would be required.

Moreover, in the era of strong competition nearly in all spheres of business activity, the institutions of higher education offering translation and interpreting training have the competitive

advantage if they provide courses in CAT tools and their translation and interpreting courses rely on the use of ICT. Not only are they attractive for prospective students who nowadays seem to select their higher education more consciously, also paying attention to the facilities that a given university has at its disposal, but they also offer the opportunity to acquire indispensable hands-on skills which are relevant to the market reality. Indeed, the familiarity with CAT tools is at present a translation market requirement, since those tools may accelerate the translation process and make it more efficient in terms of terminological consistency and terminology management. The speed of translating is important since the translation and interpreting service sector – as virtually each business segment – works according to the principle “time is money.” That is why we believe that mainstreaming CAT tools and ICT into the translation and interpreting training is very desirable and beneficial. This is also in line with the general idea of business English studies – combining different fields creates new quality. The fact that merging translation and interpreting practice with translation technology practice was a successful step was confirmed by business English students who expressed their satisfaction with such manner of teaching translation and interpreting. This allows us to hope that such approach to the education of translators and interpreters will help them develop multifaceted skills and knowledge and thanks to this they will be able to better respond to the needs of the translation and interpreting sector.

Lesson-10

LANGUAGE AND IDENTITY

Outline:

- **Language and Identity**
 - Introduction

- Social Identity
- Agency, identity and language use
 - Giddens's theory of structuration
 - Bourdieu's notion of habitus
- Research on Language Use and Identity
 - Interactional sociolinguistics
 - Co-construction of identity
- Conclusion

Topic-046: Language and Identity: Introduction

What do we mean by linguistic identity? How you talk, dress, behave is an important way of displaying who you are – indicates your social identity. Identity is something we are constantly building and negotiating all our lives through our interaction with others. Identity is also multifaceted - people switch into different roles at different times in different situations.

On the individual level: where we grew up, went to school, wealthy (or not) your family were, will be displayed through the variety of the language you use. Accent can indicate regional origin, social class and to some extent, the kind of education they had.

Accent as a label of identity: language speakers most frequently change, either to disguise their membership of, or distance themselves from, a particular social group, or to move closer to a group they want to belong to.

Examples:

1) Western cultures: first name (given) and last name= family name (traditionally the father's family name). Some cultures, for example, Russia people are identified as "son of x" or "daughter of y" (patronymics).

2) In Iceland, the patronymic name is used as the family name (f. ex. Hildur Jansdottir or Ragnar Jansson).

3) Names can sometimes carry important meanings for individual identity, for example, Felly Nkweto Simmonds

Once you have a name, how people use it becomes very important. Introductions can be symmetrical = the same type and status or belonging to the same group, for example, 'Jim, this is Alice', or as asymmetrical, for example, 'Jim, this is Dr. Jones'. This choice of names by the person doing the introduction can have an effect on how the rest of the conversation proceeds.

It's not the name you have, but the way people use it in different contexts. Susan Ervin-Tripp describes a famous triple insult based on the choice of address terms by a white American policeman in addressing a black American doctor: "What's your name, boy?" "Dr Poussaint. I'm a physician." "What your first name, boy?" "Alvin."

The way second person pronoun (you) is used in many languages can also be a linguistic indicator of social identity, used to construct social relations of solidarity, intimacy or distance.

The words you choose to address people by are important ways of showing how you situate yourself in a relation to others.

People can construct their social identity by categorising themselves (or being categorised by others) as belonging to a social group through particular types of representation. Also how speakers choice of linguistic code plays an important role in establishing their group identity. Sacks (1995) is making the point that social categories, or labels of identity, are frequently imposed on some groups by others, who may be in a more social judgement about them. Example: A teenage group in America (1960) used the term “ hotrodders ” to describe themselves, and not teenager because it’s a category owned by adults (one way of establishing independence from adults).

Often, language use fits in with other indicators of social identity and group membership, such as style of clothes, types of haircut and taste in music. The process can also work the other way: speakers adopt the speech patterns of a group they do not belong to, but which they see as prestigious , or they aspire to belong to. For example, **Short-term strategy (crossing by Ben Rampton) vs. Long time strategy**

People do not always talk in exactly the same way, and they don’t always use the same grammatical forms (for example: you was rather than you were).

Audience design: people are mainly seeking to show solidarity and approval in their dealings with others. One way is through convergence, by changing their patterns of speech to fit more closely with those of the person they happen to be talking to (Giles and Powesland 1975).

In some situations, speakers may choose not to converge, but instead either to maintain their own variety (linguistic maintenance), or move to a more extreme variety of their dialect (linguistic divergence).

The question of group affiliation and identity can determine the choices a speaker makes out how to speak, and for the bilinguals or multilinguals, which language to use.

Language rights and recognition are often important issues in socio-political conflicts all around the world. Maintenance of a minority language within a majority culture (such as Spanish in United States) is often associated with the maintenance of a minority’s values and with the continuation of its unique cultural identity.

Loss of a language can also be associated with a loss of cultural identity. Languages can be lost for a variety of reasons. As social conditions change, may be imposed and another suppressed by a dominant power.

To conclude we can say that relationship between language and identity will always involve a complex mix of individual, social and political factors which work to construct people as belonging to a social group, or to exclude them from it.

Topic-047: Social Identity

When we use language, we do so as individuals with social histories. Our histories are defined in part by our membership in a range of social groups into which we are born such as gender, social class, religion and race. For example, we are born as female or male and into a distinct income level that defines us as poor, middle class or well-to-do. Likewise, we may be born as Christians, Jews, Muslims or with some other religious affiliation, and thus take on individual identities ascribed to us by our particular religious association. Even the geographical region in which we

are born provides us with a particular group membership and upon our birth we assume specific identities, for example, Italian, Chinese, Canadian, or South African, and so on. Within national boundaries, we are defined by membership in regional groups, and we take on identities, for example, northerners or southerners.

In addition to the assorted group memberships we acquire by virtue of our birth, we appropriate a second layer of group memberships developed through our involvement in the various activities of the social institutions that comprise our communities, such as school, church, family and the workplace. These institutions give shape to the kinds of groups to which we have access and to the role-relationships we can establish with others. When we approach activities associated with the family, for example, we take on roles as parents, children, siblings or cousins and through these roles fashion particular relationships with others such as mother and daughter, brother and sister, and husband and wife. Likewise, in our workplace, we assume roles as supervisors, managers, subordinates or colleagues. These roles afford us access to particular activities and to particular role-defined relationships. As company executives, for example, we have access to and can participate in board meetings, business deals and job interviews that are closed to other company employees, and thus are able to establish role relationships that are unique to these positions.

Our various group memberships, along with the values, beliefs and attitudes associated with them, are significant to the development of our social identities in that they define in part the kinds of communicative activities and the particular linguistic resources for realizing them to which we have access. That is to say, as with the linguistic resources we use in our activities, our various social identities are not simply labels that we fill with our own intentions. Rather, they embody particular histories that have been developed over time by other group members enacting similar roles. In their histories of enactments, these identities become associated with particular sets of linguistic actions for realizing the activities, and with attitudes and beliefs about them.

The sociocultural activities constituting the public world of a white male born into a working-class family in a rural area in northeastern United States, for example, will present different opportunities for group identification and language use from those constituting the community of a white male born into an affluent family residing in the same geographical region. Likewise, the kinds of identity enactments afforded to middle-class women in one region of the world, for example, China, will be quite different from those available to women of a similar socioeconomic class in other geographical regions of the world such as Italy or Russia (Cameron, 2005).

The historically grounded, socially constituted knowledge, skills, beliefs and attitudes comprising our various social identities – predisposing us to act, think and feel in particular ways and to perceive the involvement of others in certain ways – constitute what social theorist Pierre Bourdieu calls our *habitus* (Bourdieu, 1977). We approach our activities with the perceptions and evaluations we have come to associate with both our ascribed and appropriated social identities and those of our interlocutors, and we use them to make sense of each other's involvement in our

encounters. That is to say, when we come together in a communicative event we perceive ourselves and others in the manner in which we have been socialised. We carry expectations, built up over time through socialisation into our own social groups, about what we can and cannot do as members of our various groups. We hold similar expectations about what others are likely to do and not do as members of their particular groups. The linguistic resources we use to communicate, and our interpretations of those used by others, are shaped by these mutually held perceptions. In short, who we are, who we think others are, and who others think we are, mediate in important ways our individual uses and evaluations of our linguistic actions in any communicative encounter.

Topic-048: Agency, Identity and Language Use

While our social identities and roles are to a great extent shaped by the groups and communities to which we belong, we as individual agents also play a role in shaping them. However, unlike the more traditional 'linguistics applied' view, which views agency as an inherent motivation of individuals, a sociocultural perspective views it as the 'socioculturally mediated capacity to act' (Ahearn, 2001: 112), and thus locates it in the discursive spaces between individual users and the conditions of the moment. In our use of language we represent a particular identity at the same time that we construct it. The degree of individual effort we can exert in shaping our identities, however, is not always equal. Rather, it is 'an aspect of the action' (Altieri, 1994: 4) negotiable in and arising from specific social and cultural circumstances constituting local contexts of action.

From this perspective, individual identity is always in production, an outcome of agentive moves rather than a given. When we enter a communicative event, we do so as individuals with particular constellations of historically laden social identities. While these social identities influence our linguistic actions, they do not determine them. Rather, they predispose us to participate in our activities and perceive the involvement of others in certain ways. At any communicative moment there exists the possibility of taking up a unique stance towards our own identity and those of others, and of using language in unexpected ways towards unexpected goals.

As with the meanings of our linguistic actions, however, how linguistically pliable our identities are depends to a large extent on the historical and sociopolitical forces embodied in them. Thus, while we have some choice in the ways we choose to create ourselves, our every action takes place within a social context, and thus can never be understood apart from it. Therefore individual agency is neither inherent in nor separate from individual action. Rather 'it exists through routinized action that includes the material (and physical) conditions as well as the social actors' experience in using their bodies while moving through a familiar space' (Duranti, 1997: 45).

Giddens's theory of structuration

While current conceptualisations of agency and language use in applied linguistics draw from several sources, one of the more significant is Anthony Giddens's (1984) theory of structuration. According to Giddens, individual agency is a semiotic activity, a social construction, 'something

that has to be routinely created and sustained in the reflexive activities of the individual' (Giddens, 1991: 52). In our locally occasioned social actions, we, as individual agents, shape and at the same time are given shape by what Giddens refers to as social structures – conventionalised, established ways of doing things. In our actions we draw on these structures and in so doing recreate them and ourselves as social actors. Our social structures do not, indeed cannot, exist outside action but rather can only exist in their continued reproduction across time and space. Their repeated use in recurring social practices, in turn, leads to the development of larger social systems, 'patterns of relations in groupings of all kinds, from small, intimate groups, to social networks, to large organizations' (ibid.). The mutually constituted act of 'going on' in the contexts of our everyday experiences – the process of creating and being created by our social structures – is what Giddens refers to as the process of structuration.

While Giddens is not particularly concerned with identity and language use per se, his ideas are useful in that, by locating individual action in the mutually constituted, continual production of our everyday lives – the dialogue (Bakhtin, 1986) between structure and action – Giddens's social theory provides us with a framework for understanding the inextricable link between human agency and social institutions.

Bourdieu's notion of habitus

Also influential to current understandings is the notion of habitus, as popularized by social theorist Pierre Bourdieu. According to Bourdieu (1977, 2000), habitus is a set of bodily dispositions acquired through extended engagement in our everyday activities that dispose us to act in certain ways. We bring them with us to our social experiences, and are inclined to make sense of our experiences, and coordinate our actions with others in particular ways. It is through our lived experiences as individual actors that our habitus is continually being reconstituted.

For both Giddens and Bourdieu, individual identity is not a precondition of social action but rather arises from it. Moreover, in the recursive process of identity production, individuals are constituted 'neither free agents nor completely socially determined products' (Ahearn, 2000: 120). How free or constrained we are by our habitus depends on 'the historically and socially situated conditions of its production' (Bourdieu, 1977: 95). The empirical concern is then to identify the actions that individual actors take in their lived experiences that lead, on the one hand, to the reproduction of their larger social worlds and, on the other, to their transformation.

Topic-049: Research on Language Use And Identity

Interactional sociolinguistics

One approach to the study of language use and identity that has had great impact on much research in applied linguistics is interactional sociolinguistics (IS), an approach that, to a large extent, is based on the work of linguistic anthropologist John Gumperz (1981, 1982a, 1982b). At the heart of IS is the notion of contextualisation cues. Gumperz (1999: 461) defines these cues as any verbal sign which when processed in co-occurrence with symbolic grammatical and lexical signs serves to construct the contextual ground for situated interpretations, and thereby affects how constituent messages are understood.

The cues encompass various forms of speech production including the lexical, syntactic, pragmatic and paralinguistic. They also include turn-taking patterns, and even the language code itself. The cues provide individual interlocutors with recognisable markers for signalling and interpreting contextual presuppositions. Such signals, in turn, allow for the mutual adjustment of perspectives as the communicative event unfolds.

This approach to the study of language use assumes that individuals enter into communicative activities with others as cooperative agents, that is, as individuals interested in working towards a common end. The specific analytic focus is on the particular cues these individuals use to index or signal an aspect of the situational context in which the sign is being used. Any misuse or misinterpretation of cues is assumed to be due to a lack of shared knowledge of cue meanings. Early studies investigated intercultural and interethnic communicative events, with the aim of uncovering differences in use of cues to signal and interpret meaning and revealing the subtle but significant communicative outcomes resulting from these differences. Gumperz (1982b), for example, examined the misunderstanding resulting from the particular use of cues by a Filipino English-speaking doctor while being interrogated by FBI agents. While the cues the doctor used were familiar to Filipino English speakers, they were not familiar to the American English-speaking FBI agents. Thus, Gumperz argued, the use of the cues by the doctor led to the agents' misreading of his motives. Similarly, in their study of counselling sessions at two community advice centres in the UK, Gumperz and Roberts (1991) found that differences in cue use between British and Punjabi participants in intercultural counselling sessions led to misunderstandings and ultimately negative evaluations of the Punjabi participants. As a final example, Erickson and Shultz (1982) looked at how differences in the rhythmic organisation of discourse, including, for example, the timing of turns, between counsellors and individual students in advising interviews affected the counsellors' evaluation of the students' abilities.

As noted earlier, a basic assumption of much of this early research is that participants are mutually interested in the successful accomplishment of the interaction and that their success is basically a matter of shared understandings on the use of cues. Thus, any miscommunication occurring in interactions is explainable in terms of differences in this knowledge. Several critiques, however, point to the overly simplistic view on communication embedded in this assumption.

Kandiah (1991), for example, noted that such a view could not account fully for those cases of miscommunication between participants who share knowledge of the use and interpretation of cues. Nor could it account for those interactions occurring between participants who do not share cue knowledge but do not break down. He argued that something other than shared knowledge of cues must account for these kinds of communicative interactions. To make his case, Kandiah examined a job interview from the film *Crosstalk*, developed by Gumperz and his colleagues (1979) to illustrate difficulties in cross-cultural communication. In the film, communication difficulties arising between an English interviewer and the interviewee, an Indian immigrant to England, were attributed to differences in the individuals' communicative styles. One difference, for example, was found in the individuals' use of prosodic cues used to draw attention to

particular bits of information in their presentation of the information. Kandiah argued that attributing the difficulties to a lack of shared knowledge ignores several crucial factors such as the length of time and experience the interviewee had, had in the country before the interview and thus is inadequate for explaining the miscommunication. Instead, there are other possible explanations not accounted for in an analysis of cue use, such as each participant's degree of willingness to accommodate to the other. For example, individuals can knowingly use different cues or misunderstand those used by others to create a lack of shared knowledge and thereby distance themselves from each other. Kandiah further contended that research on intercultural communication needed to do more than simply mention these matters; it is, he stated, 'necessary to draw out with care and sophistication the highly complex issues they involve and to examine their close and integral interaction with the communicative behavior under investigation' (Kandiah, 1991: 371). Kandiah concluded that by focusing only on differences in cue use to explain troubles in interaction, interactional sociolinguistics runs the risk of divert[ing] attention away from the real, underlying issues that often render communicative exchanges at these points of contact unsuccessful in a fundamental sense to surface issues . . . the diversion of attention from the real issues has the unwelcome effect of legitimizing the behavior that is so destructive of real communicative interaction. (ibid.: 372)

Shea's (1994) study is a compelling example of how lack of interactional cooperation rather than lack of shared knowledge can lead to communication difficulties. Shea examined the interactions occurring in two advising sessions in which a non-native English-speaking student requested a letter of recommendation from two native English-speaking academic advisers. With one, his request was successful; with the other it was not. Shea argued that the different outcomes resulted not from a difference in shared knowledge of contextualisation cue use between the advisers and the student, but rather from the advisers' use of different structuring strategies. In the successful session, the adviser attempted to move past communicative difficulties with the student to construct a shared understanding of what the student was requesting by using affiliating strategies like amplification, requests for clarification and agreement markers. In the unsuccessful interaction, the adviser treated the different cues as obstacles to achieving understanding, using distancing strategies such as interruptions, and exclusions to control the interaction and thereby position the student as 'a disfluent, inappropriate outsider' (Shea, 1994: 25). The different strategies used by the advisers, Shea argued, are rooted not in communicative styles, but in ideological orientations towards the non-native speaker of English. Roberts and her colleagues (Roberts et al., 1992; Roberts and Sarangi, 1999; Roberts and Sayers, 1998) have made similar arguments about ideological influences on judgements about cue use in intercultural interactions.

A related criticism has to do with the view of culture embodied in many of the earlier studies in IS. It is argued that by focusing only on cultural cue use, the studies treat individuals as cultural dupes who reside in well-defined cultural worlds separated by immutable, clear boundaries, and within which they are compelled to act in particular ways. Sarangi (1994: 414) notes the analytic burden of such a view: If we define, prior to analysis, an intercultural context in terms of cultural

attributes of the participants, then it is very likely that any miscommunication which takes place in the discourse is identified and subsequently explained on the basis of 'cultural differences'. Locating communication difficulties in cultural norms then ascribes a deterministic role to culture, and thus renders invisible the role of individual agency in shaping social action. Alongside this deterministic view of culture is the assumption of culture as a one-dimensional, stable, homogeneous and consensual entity, with easily identifiable markers, and whose members share equally in the knowledge of and ability to use its norms. Such a view, it is argued, renders invisible the varied lived experiences of individuals within groups. We can only see in our analyses how culture is reflected in communicative encounters. What we cannot see is how it can also be a 'site of social struggle or producer of social relations' (Pratt, 1987: 56). These criticisms notwithstanding, most agree that IS approaches to the study of language use have made significant contributions to a sociocultural perspective on human action. The concept of contextualisation cues, for example, draws our attention to detailed ways in which language use is tied to individual identities and provides a window into the microprocesses by which such cues are used in the accomplishment of communicative events. Relatedly, in focusing on the moment-to-moment unfolding of interaction, this approach draws our attention to the reflexive nature of context. Context is not a prior condition of interaction, but it is something that is 'both brought along and brought about in a situated encounter' (Sarangi and Roberts, 1999: 30; emphasis in the original).

Co-construction of identity

Drawing on the strengths of interactional sociolinguistics and incorporating insights from such social theorists as Bourdieu (1977, 1980, 2000), Giddens (1984, 1991) and others (e.g. Butler, 2006; de Certeau, 1984; Foucault, 1972; Weedon, 1999), current research on language, culture and identity is concerned with the ways in which individuals use language to co-construct their everyday worlds and, in particular, their own social roles and identities and those of others. The studies assume that identity is multiple and varied, individual representations of which embody particular social histories that are built up through and continually recreated in one's everyday experiences (Bucholtz and Hall, 2005). Moreover, it is acknowledged that individuals belong to varied groups and so take on a variety of identities defined by their memberships in these groups. These identities, however, are not fixed but rather are 'multifaceted in complex and contradictory ways; tied to social practice and interaction as flexible and contextually contingent resources; and tied to processes of differentiation from other identified groups' (Miller, 2000: 72). These studies often draw on a variety of data sources such as field notes, interviews, written documents and observations in the analysis in addition to taped versions of naturally occurring talk to uncover more macro patterns, including institutional and other ideologies, exerting influence on the processes of identity construction.

One particularly productive area of focus has been on identity construction of second language learners. One early influential study is that by Norton (Norton, 2000; Pierce, 1995) on immigrant women learning English in Canada. Using data sources such as personal diaries and interviews, Norton illustrates how these women's identities were differentially constructed in

their interactions with others in and out of the classroom. She argues that these different constructions had a significant influence on the women's interest in language learning, making some more willing than others to invest the time and effort needed to learn English.

Another study (Roberts and Sarangi, 1995) takes a more micro-analytic perspective, examining how learner identities are differentially constructed in the interactional strategies employed by teachers in their interactions with the learners. As one example, Roberts and Sarangi examined a teacher's use of 'hyper-questioning' in her interactions with students she perceived to be problematic. Hyper-questioning is repeated questioning within a turn, leaving no opportunity for student response, and an intense rate of questioning across turns. They showed how the teacher's repeated use of this interactional strategy served to create increasingly disengaged learners. Such strategies, they argued, 'appear to disrupt learning not in any creative way but by contribution to the formation of social conditions which are a barrier to learning (p. 373). Similar findings emerged from the study by McKay and Wong (1996), in which they examined the identity construction of four Mandarin-speaking adolescents in the contexts of their schools. Their specific focus was on documenting the many ways in which the learners attempted to negotiate the shaping of their identities as English language learners and users, and the consequences of their attempts relative to the development of their academic skills in English. They concluded that learners' historically specific needs, desires, and negotiations are not simply distractions from the proper task of language learning or accidental deviations from a 'pure' or 'ideal' language learning situation. Rather, they must be regarded as constituting the very fabric of students' lives and as determining their investment in learning the target language. (McKay and Wong, 1996: 603)

In a more recent study, Nguyen and Kellogg (2005) investigated the postings of a group of adult L2 learners of English to an electronic bulletin board and found that the course topics influenced the kinds of identities the learners constructed in their postings and ultimately, the kinds of social relationships they developed among themselves. Those learners whose postings highlighted their personal, negative feelings and experiences on the assigned topics were found to participate less frequently in the online discussions, and this limited not only their language learning opportunities but also their opportunities to develop social relationships with their peers.

In terms of teacher-student relationships, a study by Richards (2006) shows how even slight changes to interactions between teachers and students can afford opportunities for classroom members to construct other identities and role relationships in addition to institutional identities as teachers and students. One example provided by Richards shows how a discussion about the meaning of an English idiom provided multiple opportunities for a teacher and her group of Japanese learners of English to create informal, interpersonal relationships among themselves that differed quite substantially from the standard teacher-student relationship.

Also garnering a great deal of research attention is the examination of professional, social and personal identity construction in other institutional settings such as the workplace. In such settings, individuals have been shown to construct and manage a number of different aspects of their professional and social roles and role relationships. As one example, Holmes (2005)

examined workplace narratives and, specifically, the linguistic and interactional resources used by individuals to negotiate aspects of their professional and personal identities in the stories they told each other.

Other studies have been concerned with the interactional construction of professional competence or expertise in health care and other institutional settings. Candlin (2002), for example, compared interactions between two nurses, one trained and one untrained, and a patient and found that the more expert nurse used specific strategies such as topic expansion to gather enough pertinent information from the patient so that health advice could be given. The untrained nurse, in contrast, exerted more control over the topic and thus limited opportunities to gather useful information. Also taking place in a health care setting, a study by Sarangi and Clarke (2002) examined the complex interactional strategies used by a counselor in a genetic counselling session to negotiate the delicate balance between meeting the client's desire for a definitive risk assessment in an area defined by uncertainty while maintaining the counsellor's authority as expert adviser and, at the same time, her nondirective stance towards the advicegiving. Together, these and other studies exemplify in compelling ways the dynamic, contingent and co-constructed character of a range of identities including culture and ethnicity (e.g. Bucholtz, 2004; Day, 1998; Kiesling, 2005), educational identities (e.g. Dagenais et al., 2006; Higgins, 2009), gender (e.g. Huffaker and Calvert, 2005; Ford, 2008), geographical identity (e.g. Johnstone, 1999, 2007; Waugh, 2010), non-native-speaking status (e.g. Wong, 2000a, 2000b; Park, 2007), professional roles and role relationships (e.g. Campbell and Roberts, 2007; Clarke, 2008; Cotter and Marschall, 2006), interpersonal associations such as friendship (e.g. Goodwin, 2006; Kyratzis, 2004), and other more locally contingent identities such as bystanders and law-breakers (e.g. Smith, 2010; Woolard, 2007).

A related, and growing, focus of attention in research on language use and identity is on the creative formation of hybrid social identities through speech stylization and language crossing. This emerging focus is due in part to the rise in global migration, which has brought individuals and groups from different homelands into sustained contact with each other. As defined by Rampton (2009: 149), stylisation involves 'reflexive communicative action in which speakers produce specially marked and often exaggerated representations of languages, dialects, and styles that lie outside their own habitual repertoire. . . . Crossing . . . involves a stronger sense of social or ethnic boundary transgression'.

Rampton's (2005) study is a compelling example of these phenomena. His central concern was with the ways in which youths from mixed-race peer groups in Britain used language to construct hybrid identities. The groups were ethnically mixed, and included not only Anglos but also youths from Caribbean, Indian and Pakistani descent. Using observations and interviews in addition to audio-tapes as his primary sources of data, Rampton found that the youngsters often used the languages associated with each other's ethnic and racial identities in creative, unexpected ways. For example, Afro-Caribbean youths often made use of Punjabi in their interactions with others. Rampton calls such uses 'crossing' and found that they occurred most often when individuals wanted to mark their stances towards particular social relationships.

Asian adolescents, for example, often used stylised Asian English with teachers in their schools to feign a minimal level of English language competence and thus playfully resist teacher attempts to involve them in class activities. The youths also ‘crossed’ when playing games with their peers, or when they interacted with members of the opposite sex.

Chun (2001) revealed similar language stylizations and crossings in her analysis of Korean American discourse. Specifically, she found that in a discussion among young adult Korean Americans, one frequently incorporated lexical elements of African American English (AAE) into his otherwise mainstream American English speech. Chun argues that through his use of AAE, and his interlocutors’ appreciative responses, the young men projected a male identity for themselves that challenged the dominant view of Korean American men as ‘passive, feminine, and desirous of whiteness’ (p. 61). Findings from these and other such studies (e.g. Auer, 2007; Rajadurai, 2007; Stroud and Wee, 2007; Tetreault, 2009), make visible the multiple, permeable, hybrid and contextualised nature of identity, and thereby ‘subvert essentialist preconceptions of linguistic ownership’ (Bucholtz and Hall, 2005: 588).

Topic-050: Conclusion

A sociocultural perspective on identity and language use is based on several key premises. One of the more significant premises replaces the traditional understanding of language users as unitary, unique and internally motivated individuals with a view of language users as social actors whose identities are multiple, varied and emergent from their everyday lived experiences. Through involvement in their socioculturally significant activities, individuals take on or inhabit particular social identities, and use their understandings of their social roles and relationships to others to mediate their involvement and the involvement of others in their practices. These identities are not stable or held constant across contexts, but rather are emergent, locally situated and at the same time historically constituted, and thus are ‘precarious, contradictory and in process, constantly being reconstituted in discourse each time we think or speak’ (Weedon, 1997: 32).

In the contexts of our experience we use language not as solitary, isolated individuals giving voice to personal intentions. Rather, we ‘take up a position in a social field in which all positions are moving and defined relative to one another’ (Hanks, 1996: 201). Social action becomes a site of dialogue, in some cases of consensus, in others of struggle where, in choosing among the various linguistic resources available (and not so available) to us in our roles, we attempt to mould them for our own purposes, and thereby become authors of those moments.

Finally, this view recognises that culture does not exist apart from language or apart from us, as language users. It sees culture, instead, as reflexive, made and remade in our language games, our lived experiences, and ‘exist[ing] through routinized action that includes the material (and physical) conditions as well as the social actors’ experience in using their bodies while moving through a familiar space’ (Duranti, 1997: 45). On this view, no use of language, no individual language user, is considered to be ‘culture-free’. Rather, in our every communicative encounter we are always at the same time carriers and agents of culture.

Such a view of language, culture and identity leads to concerns with articulating ‘the relationship between the structures of society and culture on the one hand and the nature of human action on the other’ (Ortner, 1989: 11); a central focus of research becomes the identification of ways we as individuals use the cues available to us in our communicative encounters in the (re)constitution of our social identities and those of others.

ENG522 – Bitcoin by Maha Malik

Lesson-11

LANGUAGE, THOUGHT AND CULTURE

Outline:

- **Language, Thought and Culture**
 - Introduction
 - Linguistic Relativity
 - Rethinking linguistic relativity

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- Linguistic Relativity, or How Speakers of Different Languages Think Differently When Speaking
 - Language Relativity in Applied Linguistic Research
 - Language Relativity in Educational Practice

Topic-051: Language, Thought and Culture: Introduction

Language is both unique and autonomous

- There are similarities between language and other phenomena rather than the differences.
- There are close connection between phenomena rather than their independence.
- Many of the properties of language are also properties of culture in general.

To avoid confusion we must start with some matter of terminology:

Culture is something that everybody has. The term used differently by different anthropologists , but it always refers to some characteristics shared by a community, especially those which can be distinguished from other communities. So it refers to all that human beings learn to do, to use, to produce, to know, and to believe as they grow to maturity and live out their lives in the social groups to which they belong.

Ward Goodenough takes culture as socially acquired knowledge:

“...a society's culture consist of whatever it is one has to know or believe in order to operate in a manner acceptable to its members...culture, being what people have to learn as distinct from their biological heritage, must consist of the end-product of learning: knowledge, in a most general ... sense of term.”

- If culture is knowledge, it can exist only inside people's heads so there is a problem in studying it!
- The solutions are much the same whether one is interested in culture or language.

Methods used in both cultural anthropology and linguistics:

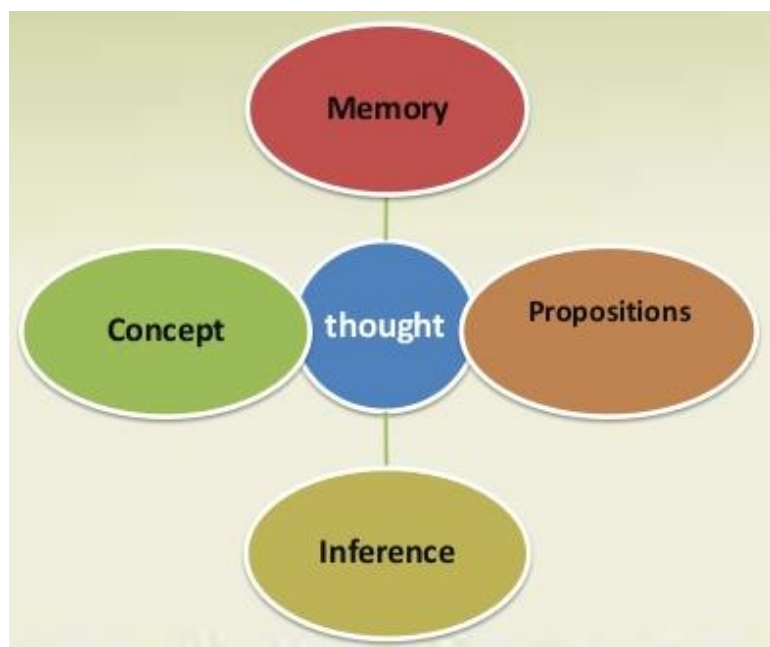
Firstly, we can observe people's natural behavior and draw our conclusion about the knowledge that must underlie it.

Secondly, we can arrange interviews & ask people more or less direct questions about their knowledge, taking their answers with a pinch of salt if need be.

Thirdly, we can use ourselves as informants.

Fourthly, we can conduct psychological experiments of one kind or another, such as measuring the length of time; it take people to perform certain tasks in order to develop a measure of the relative complexity of the knowledge involved.

Thought covers a number of different types of mental activity, and lies in the province of cognitive psychology.



Memory is the process in which information is encoded, stored)

Inference is a mental process by which we reach a conclusion based on specific evidence.

Propositions may be either remembered (already stored in memory) or inferred (worked out) it may be either something we know or something we discover add to our memory so that next time it will be there as knowledge.

Concepts may either exist in our memory as a category used in thinking, or may be created as a new category which could then be stored away in memory. as general categories in term of which propositions are formulated and experience is processed.

What is the relation between thought & culture?

Culture, if defined as socially acquired knowledge, it can be taken as one part of memory, namely the part which is acquired socially; it can be distinguished from propositions which are known to be true from one's own experience and those which have been learned from other people.

Non culture concept is one which we build without reference to other people, as a convenient way of interpreting our experience.

Kinds of knowledge

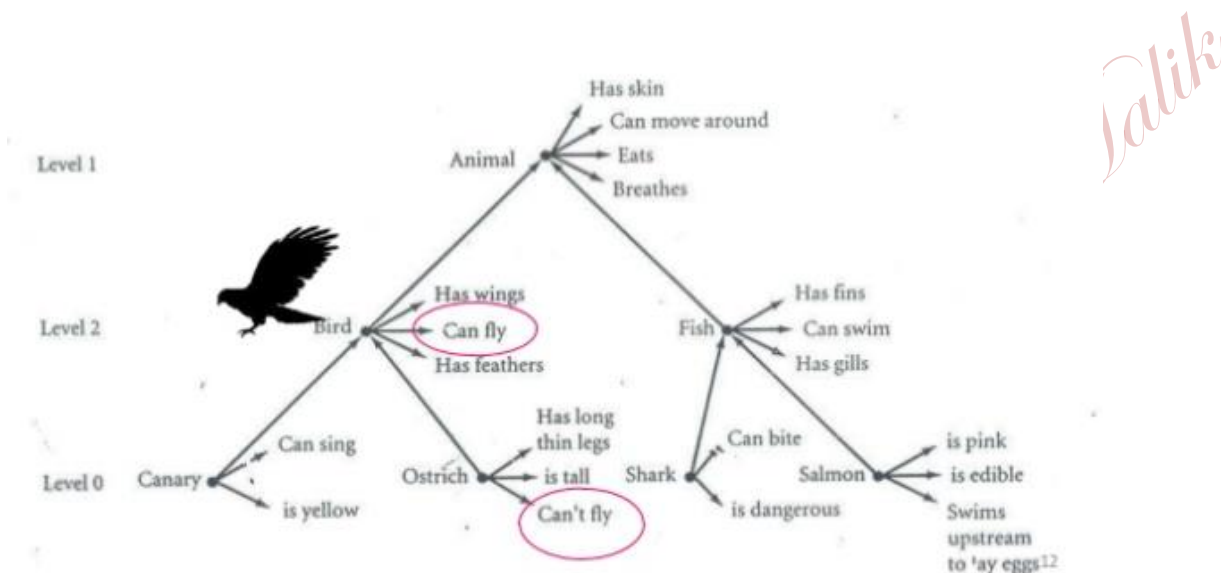
Cultural knowledge is learned from other people.

Shared non-cultural knowledge is shared by people within the same community or the world over, but is not learned from each other.

Non-shared non-cultural knowledge is unique to the individual.

The classical theory of **concept** is that each one consists of a set of features (criterial features) which are necessary and sufficient for something to count as an instance of that concept. (For example, see the diagram on the concept of 'bird.)

“What kind of bird are you, if you cannot fly”, said the little bird to the duck. “What kind of bird are you, if you cannot swim”, said the duck and dived. (Prokofié, *Peter und der Wolf*)



The most promising approach is based on the work of psychologist Eleanor Rosch, who showed that at least some concepts are organized around clear cases or prototypes.

The first attraction of the prototype theory is that it is not too hard to understand how people can learn such concepts from each other.

Second attraction is that it allows for the kind of creative flexibility in the application of concepts which we find in real life (it predicts that the boundaries of concepts will be fuzzy as they in fact are), as: (fruit & vegetable).

The third attraction is the possibility of using the theory in explaining how people categorize the social variable to which they relate language- variable such as the kind of person who is speaking & circumstances in which they are doing so.

Thus, culture can be taken as the kind of knowledge which we learn from other people, either by direct instruction or by watching their behavior, since we learn our culture from those around us. We may assume that we share it with them; so this kind of knowledge is likely to play a major role when we communicate with them & in particular when we use language.

The same will be true for any knowledge that we share with other people, regardless whether we learned it from them or not. Our knowledge consists of a vast network of concepts interrelated by propositions.

Topic-052: Linguistic Relativity

First discussed by Sapir in 1929, the hypothesis of linguistic relativity became popular in the 1950s following posthumous publication of Whorf's writings on the subject. Linguistics

relativity was developed by Edward Sapir and Benjamin Lee Whorf, also known as the Sapir-Whorf.

The Sapir-Whorf Hypothesis can be explained in the following points:

- Every single language is structurally unique.
- Linguistic relativity opens the window to the realization that all languages do not translate to each other.
- Language has a strong relationship with thought. Language and thought are affecting each other.

Language is not only to determine the pattern of culture, but also determine the manner and the way the human mind thinks. A nation, whose language is different from other nations, will have a unique cultural style and way of thinking.

The languages we speak influence the way we think. • Language simply reflects our thoughts. For example, racist terms exist because people have racist attitudes. • The Sapir Wharf Hypothesis very transparently presents a view of reality being expressed in language and thus forming in thought. • The question is still debatable: thought then language or language then thought?

One language cannot be translated to other languages. For example, the Punjabi word “joot.” This word in its most literal translation to English means the “unclean,” “not pure,” or “with-germs” (as in half eaten food). • No matter how many definitions one tries to convey the exact meaning of the word, “joot” cannot be translated in its full meaning. • This brings to mind that notion that language is relative, thus the same word can have different meanings for different people and these subjective meanings let rise varying cognitions.

In order to speak any language, you have to pay attention to the meanings that are grammatically marked in that language. For example, in English, it is necessary to mark the verb to indicate the time of occurrence of an event you are speaking about: It's raining; It rained; and so forth.

Every language is unique. If you regularly speak a language in which you must pick a form of second-person address (you) that marks your social relationship to your interlocutor. Such as Spanish ‘tu’ (‘you’ for friends and family and for those socially subordinate), ‘usted’ (‘you’ for those socially above in status or for those with whom you have no close connection).

Some language teaching theorists have recognized that learning a language means not just learning the language but also the way of life that goes with it. The implementation of linguistics relativity in language class is mostly needed in translation class.

Learning and translating a foreign language into a mother tongue or the other way would prove to be problematic, or virtually impossible, as students would need to completely alter their thought processes. Pinker (2007) states that the ability to learn languages of other cultures is associated with the understanding of words and grammatical problems and not to different ways of thinking.

To conclude, we can say that we cannot think without language; language affects perception; and language affects patterns of thinking.

Topic-053: Re-Thinking Linguistic Relativity

Since the late eighties, the notion of linguistic relativity has re-appeared in various, more sophisticated forms. In a recent state-of-the-art article on “Language and worldview” (1992), anthropologists Jane Hill and Bruce Mannheim argue that the hypothesis was never a hypothesis, but an axiom that was formulated at the time against “a naive and racist universalism in grammar, and an equally vulgar evolutionism in anthropology and history” (1992, p. 384). The resurgence of the concept in applied linguistics is due to a variety of developments in several related fields in the last 30 years. The first two come from work done in the twenties and thirties by Vygotsky and Bakhtin in the then Soviet Union. Vygotsky’s work, translated in the west in 1962 and 1978, became particularly influential in applied linguistics through the neo-Vygotskyan research of psychologist James Wertsch (1985) and linguist James Lantolf (2000). It has foregrounded the role of the sociocultural in translated in the west in the early eighties (1981, 1986), became influential in all areas of western intellectual life through the work of American literary scholars Michael Holquist (1990) and Gary Morson and Caryl Emerson (1990). Bakhtin’s thought has ushered in a period of postmodernism that questions the stable truths on which modern rationalism is based and gives a new meaning to the notion of linguistic relativity within a dialogic perspective.

The other developments come from the emergence of new fields within the established disciplines of the social sciences. Innovative research in cognitive semantics (Lakoff, 1987, Lakoff & Johnson, 1980), cross-cultural semantics (Wierzbicka, 1992), cognitive linguistics (Slobin, 1996; Levinson, 1997; Turner, 1996; Fauconnier, 1985), and gesture and thought (McNeill, 1992) has provided new insights into the relation of language and thought. The social psychological study of talk and interaction as it is explored through discourse and conversation analysis (see Jaworski & Coupland, 1999; Moerman, 1988), discursive psychology (see Edwards & Potter, 1992), cultural psychology (Stigler, Shweder, & Herdt, 1990), and language socialization research (Schieffelin and Ochs, 1986; Jacoby & Ochs, 1995) has opened up new ways of relating thought and action. Advances in linguistic anthropology (e.g., Silverstein, 1976; Gumperz, 1982a and b; Friedrich, 1986; Hanks, 1996; Hymes, 1996; Becker, 2000) have placed discourse at the core of the nexus of language, thought, and culture. Finally, there is a growing body of research on bi- and multilingualism that counteracts the monolingual bias prevalent until now in applied linguistics (e.g., Romaine, 1995; Cook, 2000; Pavlenko, in press). This research is enabling us to consider the conceptual and cultural make-up of people who use more than one language in their daily lives (Pavlenko, 1999).

Topic-054: Linguistic Relativity, or How Speakers of Different Languages Think Differently When Speaking

The linguistic relativity hypothesis has recently been revisited in a different form on the typological/grammatical and on the lexical/semantic levels.

The grammatical level has been investigated recently by Dan Slobin and his associates in a large-scale cross-cultural project in cognitive linguistics (Berman & Slobin, 1994; Slobin, 1996, 2000). Slobin builds on Boas' insight that "in each language, only a part of the complete concept that we have in mind is expressed," and that "each language has a peculiar tendency to select this or that aspect of the mental image which is conveyed by the expression of the thought" (Boas [1911] 1966, pp. 38–9). But he replaces Sapir/Whorf's static nominal phrase "thought-and-language," with the more dynamic phrase "thinking-for-speaking." We cannot prove, he notes, that language and thought are co-extensive, nor that language determines our worldview, but we can show that, in order to speak at all, speakers have to attend to those dimensions of experience that are enshrined in the grammatical categories of the language they speak. In order to utter the English sentence "The man is sick," a Siouan would have to indicate grammatically whether the man is moving or at rest, a Kwakiutl speaker would have to specify whether the man is visible or non-visible to the speaker, a Spanish speaker would need to know whether the man is temporarily or chronically sick (Slobin, 1996, p. 71). Slobin compares the stories told by children 3–11 years of age in different countries about the same sequence of 24 pictures without words, *Frog where are you?* He focuses on expressions of temporal and spatial orientation in the narrations of speakers of English, German, Spanish, Hebrew, and Turkish. (2000, p. 111). His findings reveal, for all age groups, "a different online organization of the flow of information and attention to the particular details that receive linguistic expression" (p. 78).

Here are examples from three of the pictures:

Picture 1: A boy climbs a tree to look in a hole while a dog stands next to a beehive.

Picture 2: An owl flies out of the tree and knocks the boy down, and the dog is pursued by the bees.

Picture 3: A deer takes the boy on his antlers and throws him into the river.

To encode temporal relations in the first two pictures and their sequel, both English and Spanish speakers have a perfective aspect to express a punctual, completed event in the past ("the owl flew away"), but English speakers only have a gerund to express a non-punctual, durative event ("the wasps were chasing him"), whereas Spanish speakers have both an imperfective aspect (*le perseguian al perro las avispas* 'the dog was being chased by the wasps') and a gerundive expression (*el perro salio corriendo* 'the dog came out running') to encode that same event.

To encode spatial relations, English speakers tend to express the path taken by a motion in space through particles and prepositions added to one single threw him over the cliff into a pond." Speakers of German do the same, e.g., *Der Hirsch nahm den Jungen auf sein Geweih und schmiß ihn den Abhang hinunter genau ins Wasser* 'The deer took the boy on his antlers and hurled him down from the cliff right into the water'. By contrast, Spanish speakers tend to express directionality through syntactic constructions like relative clauses, as in *El ciervo le llevo hasta un sitio, donde debajo habia un rio* 'the deer took him until a place, where below there was a river', or a combination of several verbs: *el pajarito salio del agujero del arbol volando hacia*

abajo ‘the bird exited of the hole of the tree, flying towards below’ (Slobin, 2000, p. 112). Slobin calls languages like English, German, or Dutch, satellite-framed languages (or S-languages), because motion path is given by a satellite to the verb – in English, a verb particle – while manner is bundled up with the verb. For example: English *an owl flew out of the hole in the tree*, German *da kam ne Eule rausgeflattert*, Dutch *dan springt er een uil uit het gat*. In these examples the particles give the path “out of” – *raus* ‘out’ – and the main verb depicts manner of motion “fly” – *flattert* ‘flaps’, *springt* ‘jump’. By contrast, languages like French, Spanish, or Turkish are verb framed (or V-languages) because motion path is indicated by the main verb in a clause – verbs like ‘enter’, ‘exit’, ‘cross’ (e.g., Fr. *le hibou il sort de son trou* ‘the owl exits its hole’, Sp. *sale un buho* ‘exits an owl’), and manner is expressed by adding an element or phrase to the sentence (Slobin, 2000, p. 112).

What does this tell us about the way these speakers think? Slobin (2000) claims that users of V-languages build mental images of physical scenes with minimal focus on manner of movement, and with rather different conceptualizations of manner when it is in focus. Thus, when they hear or read stories, or newspaper reports, or gossip, they might end up with quite different mental representations than users of S-languages.

These differences are exceptionally difficult to pin down, but the considerable range of evidence examined here is at least suggestive of rather divergent mental worlds of speakers of the two language types. He is careful however, to restrain his claims “to what Sapir called ‘the relativity of concepts’ at the interface between experience and its expression in language” (Slobin, 2000, p. 133), and not to extend them to all the other thought processes that may occur beyond this interface. And indeed, not all thought is encoded linguistically, and Whorf was the first to admit it. However, as Pavlenko comments, the fact that “speakers of satellite-framed languages represent manner and directed motion as a single conceptual event, while users of verb-framed languages build mental images of physical scenes with minimal focus on the manner of movement” has important consequences for research on the interaction of language and thought in bi-and multilingual individuals (Pavlenko, in press). Research in gestural communication lends support to Slobin’s findings. David McNeill, who researches the role of hand gestures as windows to the mind (McNeill, 1992), found clear correlations between the storytelling gestures and the linguistic structures used by speakers of various languages (McNeill & Duncan, 2000), thus supporting Slobin’s claim that speakers of V- and S-languages differ in their conceptualization of motion events. It should be interesting to study the relation of thought and gestures in multilingual speakers.

Topic-055: Discursive Relativity, or How Speakers of Different Discourses (Across Languages or in The Same Language) Have Different Cultural Worldviews

The idea that “verbal discursive practices affect some aspects of thinking either by modulating structural influences or by directly influencing the interpretation of the interactional context” (Lucy, 2000, p. x) underlies much recent research in linguistic anthropology, language socialization studies, and cultural psychology. This kind of research draws not on rationalist

theories of mind, but on theories that account for the interaction of mind, language, and social/cultural action in communicative practices of everyday life. We'll focus here on the work of three linguistic anthropologists who have had a particularly great influence on bringing discursive relativity to the attention of applied linguists. All three could subscribe to Joel Scherzer's remark that "[discourse] is the nexus, the actual and concrete expression of the language-culture-society relationship. It is discourse which creates, recreates, modifies, and fine tunes both culture and language and their intersection" (Scherzer, 1987, p. 296). Parallel to the work of Lakoff and Johnson in cognitive linguistics, and following along the lines of Malinowski and Boas, John Gumperz has shown the importance of contextualization cues to make sense of what is going on in conversation (Gumperz, 1992, p. 231). Contextualization cues are those features of speech that "relate what is said at any one time and in any one place to knowledge acquired through past experience, in order to retrieve the presuppositions [participants] must rely on to maintain conversational involvement and assess what is intended" (1992, p. 230). Such cues may be phonological (choice of intonation, stress, and pitch), paralinguistic (gestures, facial expressions), or linguistic (choice of code, choice of lexical forms or formulaic expressions). They link what is said to what is thought and to how the world is perceived by the participants. Gumperz gives an example of miscommunication between a graduate student and his informant in an ethnographic survey, due to the inability of the student to pick up the relevant contextualization cues:

The graduate student has been sent to interview a black housewife in a low income, inner city neighborhood. The contact has been made over the phone by someone in the office. The student arrives, rings the bell, and is met by the husband, who opens the door, smiles and steps towards him:

Husband: So y're gonna check out ma ol lady, hah?

Interviewer: Ah no. I only came to get some information. They called from the office.

(Husband, dropping his smile, disappears without a word and calls his wife.)

The student reports that the interview that followed was stiff and quite unsatisfactory. Being black himself, he knew that he had "blown it" by failing to recognize the significance of the husband's speech style in this particular case.

Contextualization cues are part of a larger class of discourse elements called "indexicals" that indirectly refer to, or "index," the personal, social, cultural, and ideological subject position of the speaker and require interpretation on the part of the participants (Gumperz, 1996).

Indexicality is a powerful way of researching the intersection of patterns of language use and concomitant patterns of thought and culture. Hanks (1996) gives evidence of the way linguistic structures index both thought processes and social alignments in speech events. His analyses of Mayan communicative practices in Yucatan show how linguistic forms derive their meaning not only from their selection among the many forms provided by the code, but from the way members combine and engage these forms in the course of their social conduct. For example, when Yuum comes to the house of the shaman Don Chabo to get a blessing, the following

dialogue ensues between Yuum, standing outside, and Don Chabo's daughter-in-law Margot, standing inside her kitchen, through the open window:

Yuum: *Is Don Chabo seated?*

Margot: *Go over there. He's drinking. Go over there inside.* (Hanks, 1996, p. 157)

Hanks shows in exquisite detail how each of the indexicals in these two utterances – deictics like *over there*, *you*, *he*, *inside*, *go*, and verbs with indexical value-like *seated* (meaning: 'in session') or *drinking* (meaning: 'having dinner') – refer to the social, economic, gender divisions between Margot's kitchen and her father-in-law's house, to the power relationships between shamans and their clients, and to the whole spatial and temporal organization of social life in Yucatan Mayan communities (1996, pp. 155–66).

Thus, language as communicative practice is tied to a person's position in time, space, social and historical relations, and his/her social and emotional identity. How do children learn language as communicative practice? In a programmatic article titled "Linguistic resources for socializing humanity" (1996), Elinor Ochs examines what it takes to become "a speaker of culture" (see Ochs, 2002). Drawing on her fieldwork on child language socialization in a Samoan village and her extensive research in developmental pragmatics, she found that, through language and other symbolic tools, children and adults construct the culture they live in by publicly signalling the actions they are performing, the stances they are displaying, i.e., their evaluation of their own and others' feelings and beliefs, the social identities they put forward, and the sequence of actions, or activities, in which they are engaged. Language acquisition is, in part, a process of socialization, "a process of assigning situational, i.e., indexical, meaning . . . to particular forms (e.g., interrogative forms, diminutive affixes, raised pitch and the like)" (1996, pp. 410–11; see also Ochs & Schieffelin, 1984). Ochs' work brings together insights from Deacon, Lakoff, Johnson, and Slobin by showing how language, as both symbolic system and communicative practice, is intimately linked to spatial and temporal orientation, to the speakers' subject positioning vis-à-vis these events, and to the actions taken. By focusing on activity, rather than on speaker utterance, as the unit of analysis, Ochs is able to closely connect the linguistic, the cognitive, and the social in children's development.

Topic-056: Language Relativity in Applied Linguistic Research

Research on all three forms of language relativity has been carried out pretty much independently of research on second language acquisition (SLA), which forms a large area of the field called "applied linguistics." The brief survey that follows recapitulates the history of SLA research from the perspective of language relativity. Prior to the emergence of applied linguistics in the late fifties/early sixties, the combination of structural linguistics and behavioral psychology led to contrastive analysis approaches in language acquisition study and to behavioristic methods of language teaching (repetition, habit formation, translation).

The first cognitive revolution in educational psychology brought about by Jerome Bruner and his colleagues in the fifties reinstated the autonomy of the thinking subject (Bruner, Goodnow, & Austin, 1956), at the same time as the linguistic revolution brought about by Noam Chomsky (1957) reinstated the autonomy of the speaking-hearing subject, thus liberating the learner from behavioral conditioning and political manipulation. Both western psychology and linguistics have implicitly adopted the rationalist, Cartesian view that language reflects thought and thought is expressed through language, but also that psychological processes exist independently of language and of the social activities in which language is used.

Through the eighties, SLA research was not interested in linguistic relativity. The classical texts in the field (Ellis, 1986; Spolsky, 1989; Larsen-Freeman & Long, 1991; Lightbown & Spada, 1993; V. Cook, 1993) don't even mention the concept. Researchers within the formal linguistic tradition sought to discover universal aspects of second language (L2) acquisition based on the principles of Universal Grammar and its language-specific parameters, or on universally valid psycholinguistic processes of L2 development. Researchers within the functionalist tradition of SLA sought to discover L2-specific rules of communicative competence including the deployment of communicative strategies and the management of conversations in social contexts. Researchers within the pragmatics strand of SLA explored the realization of speech acts across languages.

In neither of these cases was language relativity on the agenda. Although SLA research was concerned with the social context of language learning (see e.g., Ellis, 1987), it viewed the social as a stable, pre-existing fixture, existing outside the individual, not constructed by an individual's psychological and linguistic processes. By relying on the standard (national) native speaker as a benchmark for language acquisition, it seemed to equate, like Herder and von Humboldt, one language with one national community and one national culture. This is particularly noticeable in interlanguage pragmatics (Kasper & Rose, 2001), which investigates the realization of speech acts across "cultures." For researchers in this area of applied linguistics, a speaker of Japanese or Hebrew is seen as a representative of "the" Japanese or Israeli national culture. "Culture" is most of the time essentialized into monolithic national cultures on the model of monolithic standard national languages. Such a synchronic mapping of language onto culture seems unduly deterministic, even though it is explained by its different research tradition. It is also noticeable in the area of contrastive rhetoric, that still influences much of ELT today.

The overwhelming focus of SLA research on the (standard) linguistic aspects of communicative competence and the (universal) cognitive aspects of learning, as well as its inability to deal satisfactorily with social and cultural variation, foreclosed any possibility of taking into consideration semiotic, linguistic, and discursive relativity in language development. What has been missing is a consideration of the historical dimension of the relation of language, thought, and culture – a dimension that sociocultural approaches to SLA have brought back into the equation by taking a historically and socially relativistic perspective on language development. The social and cultural turn in SLA within the last ten years (e.g., Kramsch, 1993; Lantolf, 2000)

has made the language relativity principle more relevant in applied linguistics. It is implicit in recent environmental or ecological theories of SLA (e.g., Larsen-Freeman, 2002; Lemke, 2002; van Lier, 2000), and in the return of a phenomenological tradition of inquiry (Kramsch, 2002a). It can be seen in language socialization research, in sociolinguistic strands of applied linguistics (e.g., Rampton, 1997), and in neo-Whorfian perspectives on bi- and multilingualism.

The seeds are now there to deal with individual, social, and cultural variation within SLA research. Efforts to eschew rigid dichotomies like input vs. output, acquisition vs. learning, and to replace them by more holistic concepts like affordances, collaborative dialogue, or mediated activity leave open the possibility of placing language relativity at the core of language acquisition and use (Lantolf, 2000). So does the recent emphasis on creativity and play in language development (Cook, 2000), ritual and symbolic interaction (Rampton, 2002) and on the conceptual and subjective make up of multilingual speakers and learners (Pavlenko, 1999; Kramsch, forthcoming).

Interest in language relativity can also be found in the increased attention devoted in linguistic anthropology to verbal art, poetic patterning, and the “poetic imagination.” All these recent developments focus on the way individual and collective thoughts and sensibilities are co-constructed, shaped, and subverted through language as communicative and representational practice.

From a methodological perspective, the principle of language relativity suggests adopting an ecological/phenomenological approach to research in applied linguistics (Kramsch, 2002b). As such it is both inspirational and risky. Because it enables applied linguists to recapture the early holistic view of language, thought, and culture envisaged by Boas and Sapir, it feels more valid than positivistically oriented research approaches that have to reduce the evidence to what is rationally researchable. On the other hand, it might be much less reliable, if by reliable we mean evidence that can be replicated to support universal claims to truth. However, the research reviewed above shows that it is possible to relate language to thought and culture in ways that adhere to the criteria of sound and rigorous research in the social sciences, especially in cognitive linguistics and linguistic anthropology. Taking into account language relativity will require taking into account phenomena that have remained too long under the radar of applied linguistic research, i.e., cultural knowledge and its reproduction, and “the more chaotic and inchoate sides of language and social life” (Hill & Mannheim, 1992, p. 398). It will require greater use of long-term longitudinal studies, ethnographic methods of data collection, cross-linguistic discourse analyses, and a willingness to draw on social and cultural theories to illuminate the relationship between macro and micro-level phenomena (for an example of a research agenda for the study of bilingualism and thought from a relativistic perspective, see Pavlenko, in press).

Topic-057: Language Relativity in Educational Practice

The critical test of applied linguistics as a research field is, of course, education, in the broadest sense of the bringing about of social and cultural change. Henry Widdowson pointed to this

problem when he wrote: “It is the responsibility of applied linguists to consider the criteria for an educationally relevant approach to language” (1980, p. 86).

But what do we mean by “educationally relevant”?

Jerome Bruner answers:

[Education] is not simply a technical business of well-managed information processing, nor even simply a matter of applying “learning theories” to the classroom or using the results of subject-centered “achievement testing.” It is a complex pursuit of fitting a culture to the needs of its members and their ways of knowing to the needs of the culture.

The needs of the culture, as perceived and formulated by teachers, school administrators, and textbook writers and publishers may not be the same as those formulated by researchers, nor is the discourse of all practitioners or of all researchers homogeneous. Culture, in an individual, as in society at large, is plural, changing, and often conflictual. The problem here is the conflict between the desire of the practitioner and the constraints of the institution, e.g., between the culture of teaching and the culture of testing, or between the culture of the students and the culture of native speakers.

The conflict is expressed in three questions that can be raised by the principle of language relativity in educational linguistics.

First, isn’t applied linguistic theory itself subjected to the principle of language relativity? The case has been made for the teaching of English around the world that is supported by an applied linguistic theory very often born out of an Anglo-Saxon view of communication and interaction (e.g., Pennycook, 1994; Canagarajah, 1999; and others). Yet such a view is only partially true, for applied linguistic theory is multiple, even though not all theories are equal before the laws of demand and supply on the economic textbook market. Moreover if applied linguistic theory is both universally valid and contingent upon the cultural conditions of its enunciation, so is educational theory.

Second, isn’t educational culture inherently inhospitable to the principle of language relativity, since its ultimate goal is to discriminate between educated and non-educated segments of the population through the imposition of the same formal norms to everyone? The reason why (non-relativistic) grammar is taught as a formal system, apart from the fact that it is more easily “testable,” is precisely because of a positivistic, information-processing educational culture that imposes its own rationalistic frames on what is acceptable teaching at what level for what age group, and what is not. It is this educational culture that has trained the teachers and the teacher-trainers. Its rationale is to be found in the historical, cultural, political traditions of the institution. It is often associated with noble goals of educational equity, objectivity, fairness, etc. in a mass education system, but this only exacerbates the dilemma. Since the principle of language

relativity acknowledges the presence of both universal and culture-specific forms of knowledge, the question is really: How can an educational system make explicit what is universal and what is culture specific in the knowledge it dispenses?

Third, can language relativity be taught directly or can it only be modeled? This is the key question. Suggestions have been made to make teachers and students aware of the relevance of the linguistic relativity principle in its Vygotskian, diachronic form, both with regard to their L1 and the L2 (Kramsch, 1993, 1998). Teachers can show their students, for example, how the English grammar encourages its speakers to attend to reality in a certain way when they speak. They can explain the multiple ways in which “culture” is constructed through language, and how else it could be constructed through that same language. They can make their syllabus, teaching methods, and teaching goals more transparent, by telling students what “culture” they have learned by learning to talk and write in a foreign language. They can take every opportunity to link language use to a speaker’s or writer’s thought, i.e., stance and point of view, and to link that point of view to that of other speakers and writers of the same national, social, or cultural discourse community.

Outline:

o Language and Communication

- o Knowing a language
- o Linguistic competence
- o Linguistic Competence - One of the Central Concepts in Applied Linguistics
- o Communicative competence Implications of linguistic and communicative for foreign language teaching and testing
- o Influence of communicative competence

Topic-058: Knowing a Language

What does it mean to know a language? For the moment let's compare it with learning to ride a bicycle. When you learned that skill as a child there were at least three things involved. You needed some actual information, such as how the brakes worked. Then there were the skills, such as not losing your balance. The third part had to do with your attitude, especially when you felt you were not making progress. In both riding a bicycle and learning a language you are building on what has gone before, whether that was keeping your balance while riding a tricycle or climbing a tree or, in the case of languages, speaking and understanding your own language already.

What do you Actually Need to Know?

The knowledge you need can be summarized under these headings:

- Knowledge about the form of the language
- Knowledge about how the language is used in different situations
- Knowledge about putting the language together in speech and writing words to describe what you know

Some courses concentrate mainly on the form of the language (pronouncing and spelling words properly), forgetting that the social rules are also important. So, too, is the business of making sure what you say or write fits in with everything else that is being said and written.

Topic-059: Linguistic Competence

The notion of 'competence' has its basis outside linguistics. It plays an important role both in professional life and in disciplines concerned with the professional personality such as sociology, pedagogy, psychology, personnel management. According to Chomsky, competence is the ideal speaker/hearer, i.e., an idealized but not a real person who would have a complete knowledge of language. This means a person's ability to create and understand sentences, including sentences they have never heard before.

Linguistic competence is to know how to use:

- The grammar
- Syntax and
- Vocabulary of a language

Linguistic competence asks:

-
- What words do I use?
 - How do I put them into phrases and sentences?

Components of Linguistics Competence

Linguistic competence includes components such as:

- Phonetics
- Phonology
- Syntax
- Semantics
- Morphology

Competence and Native Speakers

Competence enables native speaker to recognize ambiguous sentences, or accept even apparently meaningless sentences as syntactically correct (and even making some sense). Even if you've never heard these before, you know which one is "English" and which one isn't.

Example:

- Eight very lazy elephants drank brandy.
- Eight elephants very lazy brandy drank.

How do Competence Apply to the Language Classroom?

The assumption used in many language instruction programs is that once the learners have 'learned' the information they will be able to use it through reading, writing, listening and speaking. The disadvantage of this approach is that having been trained to learn the language through "knowing" (competence), learners have difficulty actually "doing" (performance) something with the language.

Criticisms

Linguistic theories based on the notion of competence have been criticized for being too idealistic. However, Chomsky dismissed criticisms of delimiting the study of performance in favor of the study of underlying competence, as unwarranted and completely misdirected. This led to a broadening of the original concept to communicative competence, introduced by Hymes (1974). This is now generally defined as "the socially appropriate use of language".

A competence is a bundle of cognitively controlled abilities or skills in some particular domain. It implies both knowledge and the ability and disposition to solve problems in that domain. Relevant domains are often occupational areas; and a set of problems in such a domain is often called, for short, a job. The solution of problems presupposes the ability to make informed and responsible choices. Competence is essentially acquired through practice and experience. It is assessed according to some established standard.

Personal and Professional Competencies

A distinction is made between personal and professional competencies. Since we are concerned with linguistic competence, we may say that from a general point of view, a person's linguistic competence is first and foremost part of his personality. On the other

hand, it is certainly one of those personal competencies that are highly relevant to professional life.

Topic-060: Linguistic Competence - One of The Central Concepts in Applied Linguistics

Linguistic competence is one of the central concepts in applied linguistics. There it has always been construed in such a way as to be applicable to professional life. It is the aim of the linguistics is to assemble the multifarious aspects of linguistic competence into a comprehensive notion. Many of the issues have been addressed by applied linguistics, especially by that branch which is devoted to foreign language teaching and learning. There is, however, to this date no unified theory that would be equally applicable to competence in native and foreign languages, to monolingual and plurilingual competence.

Some Questions to Consider...

We need answers to questions such as the following:

- What does a speech community consider linguistic competence?
- As for the concepts of a competent speaker formed by different speech communities: where do they differ, so that the concept of linguistic competence is culture-bound; where do they overlap, so that there is a universal core to the concept?
- Can the notion of linguistic competence relevant in a society be operationalized in the form of a test by which the competence of a person in some language can be assessed?
- How do the various factors making up linguistic competence correlate? For instance, does lexical competence correlate with grammatical competence? Does procedural competence correlate with reflective competence?
- Can a correlation between competence in one's native language and aptitude in foreign languages be ascertained empirically?
- Is there a unified concept of language aptitude in the sense that a person apt for languages is apt both for his native and for foreign languages?

First of all, answers to such questions have an intrinsic scientific interest.

Quite in general, if the notion of competence in a language can be turned into an empirical concept, then a number of issues become empirical issues. Relevant research may have a number of results, among them importantly the following three:

- We find a close correlation among the competencies relating to the components of the language system, while there is no correlation among competence in the language system and variational/pragmatic/communicative competencies. Then we may feel entitled to conclude that there is, after all, a competence in the language system that is separate from other cognitive and social abilities.
- We find, on the contrary, lack of correlation among the abilities concerning the language system, while there may be correlations between some of these and other cognitive or communicative abilities, e.g. between grammatical

competence and analytic intelligence. Then we may conclude that linguistic competence is constituted as the intersection of a heterogeneous set of abilities.

- We find a significant correlation among all the abilities constituting linguistic competence in the wide sense. That would seem to argue that there is a unified and comprehensive linguistic competence.

Apart from their theoretical significance, the questions posed above have considerable practical import.

Answers to above Questions...

Answers to some of these questions will be attempted; In particular, the following will be proposed:

- There is a unified concept of language competence, applicable to all the languages that an individual knows, i.e. to native and foreign languages alike.
- Language competence is similar to other human abilities in that individuals differ in the extent to which they possess it.
- Language competence can be operationalized in the form of language tests that determine the extent to which an individual possesses it.
- For each individual, ability in a particular language depends on his universal linguistic ability. This is true both for his mother tongue and for other languages.
- Ability in one's native language and ability in foreign languages, although normally differing in extent, are objects of the same kind i.e. there is no empirical correlate to the construct of a unique 'native speaker's competence'.

Topic-061: Communicative Competence

In a set of publications starting with Hymes 1971 and 1972, Dell Hymes draws attention to the fact that grammatical competence as defined (theretofore) by Chomsky is insufficient for the individual to lead a useful linguistic life. The following is an oft-quoted passage:

“.....there are rules of use without which the rules of grammar would be useless. Just as rules of syntax can control aspects of phonology, and just as rules of semantics perhaps control aspects of syntax, so rules of speech acts enter as a controlling factor for linguistic form as a whole.”

Definition

Hymes postulates a communicative competence that relates “to speaking as a whole” (1971:16) and that embraces not only grammatical, but also pragmatic and sociolinguistic competence. Hymes coins a term communicative competence and defines it as knowledge of the rules for understanding and producing both the referential and social meaning of language.”

It is a term in linguistics which refers to a language user's grammatical knowledge of syntax, morphology, phonology and the like, as well as social knowledge about how and when to use utterances appropriately

According to Widdowson:

“Knowing a language is more than how to understand, speak, read, and write sentences, but how sentences are used to communicate. Communicative abilities have to be developed at the same time as the linguistic skills; otherwise the mere acquisition of the linguistic skills may inhibit the development of communicative abilities.”

Usage and Use:

“Usage” makes evident the extent to which the language user demonstrates his knowledge of linguistic rules.

“Use” makes evident the extent to which the language user demonstrates his ability to use his knowledge of linguistic rules for effective communication. (Widdowson, 1978)

Teachers should provide linguistic and communicative contexts. Linguistic context focuses on usage to enable the students to select which form of sentence is contextually appropriate. Communicative context focuses on use to enable the students to recognize the type of communicative function their sentences fulfill.

Components of Communicative Competence

Canale & Swain 1980, articulate the concept of communicative competence into components as follows:

1. Grammatical Competence
2. Sociolinguistic Competence
3. Strategic competence
4. Discourse competence

1. Grammatical Competence

Grammatical competence is the ability to recognize and produce the distinctive grammatical structures of a language and to use them effectively in communication. Grammatical competence includes knowledge of lexical items and of rules of morphology, syntax, sentence—grammar semantics, and phonology.

2. Sociolinguistic Competence

Sociolinguistic competence is the ability to interpret the social meaning of the choice of linguistic varieties and to use language with the appropriate social meaning for the communication situation. It involves:

- Sociocultural Rules of Use: Appropriateness
- Rules of Discourse: Coherence and cohesion of groups of utterances.

3. Strategic Competence

It is the manner of manipulating language in order to meet communicative goals and is used to compensate communication disruption caused by lack of communicative competence and to strengthen communicative effects.

Strategic competence is made up of verbal and non-verbal communication strategies that may be called into action to compensate for breakdowns in communication due to performance variables or to insufficient grammatical competence.

4. Discourse Competence

Discourse competence is the ability we have to connect sentences in stretches of discourse and to form a meaningful whole out of a series of utterances. Discourse competence asks:

How are words, phrases and sentences put together to create conversations, speeches, email messages, newspaper articles?

Why is Communicative Competence Important?

Knowing the dimensions of competence is an important first step toward developing competence. Communication competence is needed in order to understand communication ethics, to develop cultural awareness, to use computer-mediated communication, and to think critically.

Difference between Communicative Competence and Linguistic Competence

The main difference between the Communicative competence and the Linguistic one is that the linguistic competence belongs to the whole Communicative Competence or Language Knowledge that the students or native speakers have. So, Linguistic is a component from Communicative competence in other words.

"Communicative competence is made up of four competence areas: linguistic, sociolinguistic, discourse, and strategic.

Linguistic competence is to know how to use the grammar, syntax, and vocabulary of a language. Linguistic competence asks: What words do I use? How do I put them into phrases and sentences?

Sociolinguistic competence is to know how to use and respond to language appropriately, given the setting, the topic, and the relationships among the people communicating.

Sociolinguistic competence asks: Which words and phrases fits this setting and this topic? How can I express a specific attitude (courtesy, authority, friendliness, respect) when I need to? How do I know what attitude another person is expressing?

Discourse competence is to know how to interpret the larger context and how to construct longer stretches of language so that the parts make up a coherent whole. Discourse competence asks: How words, phrases and sentences are put together to create conversations, speeches, email messages, newspaper articles?

Strategic competence is to know how to recognize and repair communication breakdowns, how to work around gaps in one's knowledge of the language, and how to learn more about the language and in a specific context. Strategic competence asks: How do I know when I've misunderstood or when someone has misunderstood me? What do I say then? How can I express my ideas if I don't know the name of something or the right verb form to use?"

Topic-062: Implications of Linguistic and Communicative for Foreign Language Teaching and Testing

Although for methodological reasons the literature on language teaching and language testing gives the impression that linguistic competence and communicative competence (or for that matter pragmatic competence) are fundamentally distinct theoretical constructs with few features in common, our view is that linguistic and communicative competence are complementary and neither can occur without the other. As Gunterman and Phillips (1980) put

it “one cannot communicate without the grammar and at the same time the communicative use of language appears to be essential to the acquisition of linguistic features”. Linguistic and communicative competencies are not separate concepts with nothing in common, they are both part of the language or as Davies (1978) put it “linguistic competence and communicative competence represent different points along a single language learning continuum”. (p. 215). Canale and Swain (1979) would refer to this combined, overall proficiency as one’s true communicative competence. However, the distinction has to be maintained only for second or foreign language teaching of testing purposes, since foreign language instructional materials, methods and tests are often geared to elicit one rather than the other. In this context Palmer (1979) claims that second language learners can experience either compartmentalized or integrated control of the two components of language. In the former case (compartmentalised situation), the foreign language learner will have a good control of the formal aspect of the language (phonology, vocabulary and grammar); but be unable to get his meaning across with ease. In the second case (integrated situation), a foreign language learner is willing to communicate or to get his message across while never controlling the grammar adequately. Therefore, linguistic and communicative competence must combine to produce, general, overall, language proficiency which we will refer to as integration. We believe that integration is the ultimate goal of a foreign language class.

Topic-063: Influence of Communicative Competence

Howes (1983) suggested that complex social interaction skills are learned best in stable dyads and that social skill is develop within a friendship relationship. If this is the case then, securing and maintaining mutual friendships early in a child’s life is important.

Bachman’s View

Bachman’s view the communicative competence is divided into grammatical competence and textual competence. **Bachman’s grammatical competence is consonant with Canale and Swain’s grammatical competence.**

The textual competence pertains to the knowledge of conventions for cohesion and coherence and rhetorical organization. It also includes conventions for language use in conversations, involving starting, maintaining, and closing conversations. Bachman’s textual competence has both the part of Canale and Swain’s discourse competence and the part of their strategic competence. Bachman’s pragmatic competence mainly focuses on the relationship between what one says in his or her communicative acts and what functions he or she intends to perform through his or her utterances.

Communicative Competence and Social Interactions

According to Howes (1983) during preschool years, children begin to differentiate between friends and playmates (Howes, 1988). Preschool friends, as compared to playmates, become more responsive in conversation and begin to exchange more positive and less negative behaviors during interactions. However, the friendship will not mature if one child is not accepted by another. There are various reasons why children are not accepted by their peers.

One reason may be that they are unable to use language effectively. Preschoolers use their communicative competence to make friends. Thus, if children exhibit poor communicative competence, they will often be denied access to their peer group (Howes, 1988).

It has also been found that these children tend to become less positive in their affect with peers over time (Howes, 1988). There is growing recognition that young children with language impairment are at special risk for failure to develop social interactions with their peers.

Association between Children's Linguistic Competence and their Patterns of Peer Interaction

The close association between children's linguistic competence and their patterns of peer interaction is demonstrated in a series of studies carried out in preschool classrooms (Hadley & Rice, 1991; Rice, 1993; Rice, Sell, & Hadley, 1991).

There is growing recognition that young children with language impairment are at special risk for failure to develop social interactions with their peers (cf. Brinton & Fujiki, 1993; Craig, 1993; Gallagher, 1991, 1993). The close association between children's linguistic competence and their patterns of peer interaction is demonstrated in a series of studies carried out in preschool classrooms (Hadley & Rice, 1991; Rice, 1993; Rice, Sell, & Hadley, 1991).

Rice and her colleagues demonstrated that the children who were sought out as preferred conversational partners in an integrated preschool setting were generally those with normally developing language skills rather than children with speech and language impairments or those learning English as a second language. In addition, the children with limited language abilities were more likely to initiate verbal interactions with adults than with normally developing peers.

Rice (1993) argues that children with limited language abilities encounter a number of social consequences. One consequence is that they are not fully incorporated into peer interactions, a conclusion supported by converging evidence from a number of studies (e.g., Craig & Washington, 1993). Extending this perspective, it is reasonable to predict that adjustments in conversational interactions could also be associated with social status in the peer group. Children who are less able to engage peers in conversational interactions are less well-equipped with the crucial skills necessary to transform social relationships into friendships.

A connection between children's discourse abilities and their peer popularity has been established for normally developing children (Black & Hazen, 1990; Hazen & Black, 1989; Place & Becker, 1991). This connection has yet to be demonstrated for children whose only developmental deficit is speech and/or language impairment(s). The multiplicity of their limitations does not allow for a clear connection between social status and communication limitations.

Social Status and Discourse Skills in Normally Developing Children

Hazen and Black (1989) investigated the relationship between social status and discourse skills in normally developing preschool children. Each child in the classroom received a Liked or Disliked score based on the combination of positive and negative nominations he or she received.

Results indicated that socially accepted children had better skills than less accepted children for initiating, maintaining, and reinitiating coherent discourse across interaction contexts. In a similar study, Black and Hazen (1990) studied the responsiveness of liked and disliked preschoolers to familiar and unfamiliar peers. The results of this study indicated that disliked children made more irrelevant comments, were less responsive, and were less likely to clearly direct their initiations to both familiar and unfamiliar peers as compared to their liked counterparts.

Similarly, Place and Becker (1991) conducted a study using a rating scale methodology that examined the impact of pragmatic skills on likability. Pragmatic skills refer to the appropriate use of language in social contexts.

In this study, third and fourth grade girls were asked to listen to four tape recordings of a 10-year-old girl simulating an interaction episode with a librarian. In each recorded scenario, the girl appropriately or inappropriately used four different pragmatic skills. The girl was judged as more likeable and described more positively when she displayed pragmatic competence than when she displayed inappropriate pragmatic behaviors such as requesting inappropriately, interrupting, or failing to maintain the logic of the conversation.

Communicative Competence and Popularity Status in Children with Cognitive Deficits

Studies assessing communicative competence and popularity status have also been conducted with children with various handicapping conditions (Guralnick, 1981; Hemphill & Siperstein, 1990). These studies support the notion that communication handicaps parallel limited socioverbal interactions and judgments of social immaturity. For example, Guralnick (1981) studied the peer relations in mainstreamed playgroups of preschoolers with and without cognitive deficits. Results of this study indicated that the children with cognitive deficits communicated less effectively and were not as well accepted as their peers without such deficits. Not surprisingly then, it was found that the children with cognitive limitations and the children without such limitations tended to form polarized social networks. Guralnick (1981) concluded that "handicapped children were perceived as being of lower status and are treated accordingly" (p. 287). Exactly why the children with cognitive deficits had difficulty with social skills is unclear. The social interaction differences may be related to these children's cognitive or social skills deficits, physical appearance, and/or their particular limitations with interactive speech and language skills. Hemphill and Siperstein (1990) investigated the relationship between the conversational competence of children with mild cognitive limitations and their acceptance by regular education students. The regularly educated elementary school students were asked to watch a videotape in which children with mild cognitive deficits displayed either skill or lack of skill at conversational management. The students responded more favorably as measured by a descriptive questionnaire and two bipolar scales when the children with cognitive deficits displayed skilled conversational management.

Lesson-13

PSYCHOLINGUISTICS, SOCIOLINGUISTICS AND EDUCATIONAL ASPECTS

Outline:

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- Language and cognition
 - Approaches to Language and Cognition

Language Transfer and cross-linguistic influence

Language attrition and language loss

- Individual differences
- Sociolinguistic Aspects
 - Multilingualism and L3
 - Language shift
 - Language identity
 - The spread of English and English as a lingua franca
 - Variation and Variability
- Educational Aspects
 - Vocabulary acquisition
 - Task based language teaching
 - Teacher education

Topic-064: Language and Cognition

What is the relationship between language and cognition? Do people who speak different languages think differently? Is a certain level of cognitive development required for language acquisition? These questions were of keen interest to thinkers in the early twentieth century and remain important in anthropology, linguistics and psychology. However, the cognitive revolution of the 1950s brought a new question about the relationship between language and cognition: is language the same type of mental entity as other cognitive abilities, or is it fundamentally different?

Approaches to Language and Cognition

A hallmark of modern cognitive science is the goal of developing a theory of cognition powerful enough to encompass all human mental abilities, including language abilities. A long-standing controversy concerns two ways of conceptualizing the architecture (or basic design) of cognition. One approach proposes that general-purpose processes and mechanisms provide a foundation for all varieties of human intelligence. We can refer to this as 'general purpose' cognition. **Examples of possible universal processes are:**

- The ability to induce a category from exposure to examples (category induction), and;
- The ability to mentally complete a known pattern when confronted with a piece of it (pattern completion).

Cognitive scientists frequently attempt to precisely specify their proposed mechanisms by implementing them as computer algorithms which can be tested in artificial intelligence (AI) programs. Researchers have tried to use AI programs to show that the same principles that can explain general problem-solving can also explain aspects of language acquisition and processing. The second way of conceptualizing human cognition emphasizes the differences between language and other abilities. A key idea is that many distinct domains of cognition exist and must be learned separately, using different mental mechanisms. This approach is referred to as the

'modularity of cognition' or 'mental modules' approach. At first glance it may seem contrary to the interdisciplinary spirit of cognitive science and to the possibility of a unified theory of cognition. However, the unifying theory is the thesis of distinct mental modules, which are believed to have evolved to accomplish specific tasks relevant to mammalian evolution, such as visual exploration, or relevant to human evolution, such as language use. Much of the appeal of this approach comes from findings in neuropsychology showing that distinct areas of the brain serve distinct functions such as vision, language processing, motor coordination, memory, and face recognition. The interdisciplinary spirit is maintained because advocates of this approach reach out to biological scientists and evolutionary theorists. Those favoring modularity embrace the principle of converging methodologies: a theory must have explanatory power in the distinct academic disciplines that compose the cognitive sciences. These two approaches to the architecture of cognition developed out of different philosophical traditions, and have evolved considerably during the half-century history of cognitive science.

Topic-065: Language Transfer and Cross Linguistic Influence (CLI)

Language transfer (also known as L1 interference, linguistic interference, and cross linguistic influence) refers to speakers or writers applying knowledge from one language to another language.

Cross Linguistic Influence (CLI)

Cross linguistic influence (often referred to as 'CLI') has been an important factor to consider in the study of foreign language acquisition in general. In foreign language acquisition, the learner starts off with at least one fully acquired linguistic system.

Cross linguistic influence is intended as a more comprehensive term as it considers the interaction between all existing linguistic system(s) during the process of third (or subsequent) language acquisition rather than assuming the L1 as the only potential source of transfer. Studies have shown that an existing second language, even if not acquired completely, can interfere in the performance of the L3.

Types of Linguistic Transfer

- **Inter-language Transfer (lexical or morphological)**

The interaction of a non- primary language with a third or subsequent one

- **Cross Linguistic Influence**

All existing linguistic systems play an equally important role in the acquisition process of a target language.

- **Transfer in Second Language Acquisition (SLA)**

Only the primary language plays a role in the acquisition process of a foreign one.

- **Transfer in Target Language Acquisition (TLA)**

Transfer in TLA considers all of the previously known languages to play an equally important role when it comes to possible interactions between the target language and the existing one(s). The presence of more linguistic systems in the mind of an L3 learner will not only increase the number of potential interactions that can take place, but also alter the course of these interactions.

Importance of Cross Linguistic Influence (CLI) in TLA

It motivates a more inclusive theory of transfer as it carefully considers all existing systems in the learner's mind. It imposes a re-evaluation of the already existing theories and the relevance of their claims.

Why does Transfer Occur?

Two possible points can be considered in this regard:

- Learning is facilitated if the learner is able to relate a new item or task to existing previous knowledge.
- Learner will constantly seek to facilitate the language-learning task by making use of previously acquired linguistic knowledge.

Factors that Determine CLI

Following are the factors that trigger one language to be activated over another when it comes to learning a foreign language:

1. The role of typology: The role of typology is considered to be one of the most influential factors when it comes to transfer. It is intuitive to assume that when it comes to CLI; speakers will borrow more from a language that is typologically closer to the target language.
2. The role of L2: Learners tend to use the L2 (or languages other than the L1) as the source of cross-linguistic influence, for example studies on non-Europeans who acquire their second European language support this idea. Also, Hindi and Chinese speakers with knowledge of English who acquire German as their third language will transfer mainly from their L2 English onto their L3 (Chandrasekhar, 1978; Vogel, 1992).
3. The role of proficiency level: In TLA proficiency must be considered, not only in the target language, but also in the other non-native language(s) known by the speaker. High proficiency in a background language would make this language more likely to play a role in the acquisition of a new one. However, low proficiency in a background language is also a factor to be considered in CLI (De Angelis, 2005).

Topic-066: Language Attrition & Language Loss

Language attrition is the process of losing a native, or first, language. This process is generally caused by both isolation from speakers of the first language ("L1") and the acquisition and use of a second language ("L2"), which interferes with the correct production and comprehension of the first.

Such interference from a second language is likely experienced to some extent by all bilinguals, but is most evident among speakers for whom a language other than their first has started to play an important, if not dominant, role in everyday life; these speakers are more likely to experience language attrition. It is common among immigrants that travel to countries where languages foreign to them are used.

Types of Language Attrition

1. Lexical attrition

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2. Grammatical attrition
 3. Phonological attrition

1. Lexical Attrition

The first linguistic system to be affected by first language attrition is the **lexicon**.

The lexical-semantic relationship usually starts to deteriorate first and most quickly, driven by Cross Linguistic Interference (CLI) from the speaker's L2, and it is believed to be exacerbated by continued exposure to, and frequent use of, the L2.

2. Grammatical Attrition

Grammatical attrition can be defined as "the disintegration of the structure of a first language (L1) in contact situations with a second language (L2)".

3. Phonological Attrition

Phonological attrition is a form of language loss that affects the speaker's ability to produce their native language with their native accent.

Possible Causes of Language Attrition

1. Assimilation

Assimilation is a process in which a group gradually gives up its own language, culture and system of values and takes on those of another group with a different language, culture and system of value through a period of interaction (Crystal, 1991) Paharis at Khopasi came to unending interaction with Brahmins and Chhetris and they needed to use Nepali language while talking to Newars and Tamangs. They assimilated the language first then their culture gradually. As a result, they lost their language.

In Nepalese society, we mostly observe linguistic assimilation, the process of interaction between different group of behavior of the majority. Despite being a multi-lingual nation. Nepali language has been given power, recognition while the remains minority languages and their communities are impoverished and marginalized. As a result linguistic minorities have remained socially excluded from harnessing national benefits in fields such as politics, economy, education, employment and so on. Promotion of one language, one religion, one dress and mono-cultural nationalism by the state not only hurt the culture of these people but it effectively marginalized them in economic political and social realms(Bhattachan, 1995).

2. Acculturation

It is a process in which changes in language, culture and system of value of a group happen through interaction with a different language, culture and system of values.(Crystal, 1991)

Paharis at Khopasi acculturate Brahmins language and culture. They called Brahmin purohit to perform rites and rituals that changed their cultural values and system. It led them to abandon their native language.

3. Social distance

The feeling a person has that his or her social position is relatively similar to or relatively different from the social position of someone else. The social distance between two different group or communities influence communication between them and may affect the way one group

learns the language of another (for example, an immigrant group learning the language of the dominant group in a country). Social distance may depend on such factors as differences in the size, ethnic origin, political status, social status of two groups (Crystal, 1991). For the case of Pahari they found themselves far from their own language as they were surrounded by Nepali native speakers. They could not use their own language in interaction and gradually they forgot their own language.

4. Linguistic and cultural hegemony

Linguistic hegemony is achieved when dominant groups create a consensus by convincing others to accept their language norms and usage as standard or model. Hegemony is ensured when they can convince those who fail to meet those standards to view their own language. Schools have been the principle instruments in promoting a consensus regarding the alleged superiority of standardized language (Wiley, in McKay and Hornberger, 2007, p.113).

Similarly cultural hegemony is a philosophic and sociological concept, originated by the Marxist philosopher Antonio Gramsci, that a culturally diverse society can be ruled or dominated by one of its social classes. It is the dominance of one social group over another e.g. The ruling class over all other classes. The ideas of the ruling class to be seen as the norm, they are seen as universal ideologies, perceived to benefit everyone whilst only really benefiting the ruling class. (wikipedia.com). For the case of Paharis, they failed to meet the standards to view their own language and school going children found/realized the superiority of Nepali language in the past. As a result, they abandoned their native language. Nepali, as national language and dominance of Hindu culture gave them way out to abandon their culture as well. As a result, they lost their native language.

5. World system theory

World system model and Neo-Marxist divides the world into three parts viz core, semi-periphery and periphery. Standard variety i.e. Nepali lies in core and other ethnic language lies in semi-periphery and language of minorities lies in periphery. Pahari people at Khopasi were in minority and their language was dominated by Nepali language. A.G. Frank's bi-polar division as Metropolis and Satellite also matches in the case. Pahari language was in Satellite and standard variety i.e. Nepali was in Metropolis.

6. Sociobiology (Reproductive fitness)

According to sociobiology when one loses its reproductive fitness it ultimately dies out. Similarly, Pahari language lost its reproductive fitness and the speakers gradually abandoned the language. Those Paharis who could speak Pahari language felt that they could not express them full with the help of their own language and they might have adopted words from Nepali language. During the study, old people speaking Pahari told that they did not have many words to address nature and happenings. It shows that this language lost its productive fitness and its speakers felt disadvantaged. So they did not practice it and gradually lost their own language.

Consequences of the loss of the native language

The consequences of the loss of native language are as follows:

1. Collapse of culture

They no longer use their language in rites and rituals and their culture is in verge of extinction. They started calling Brahmin Purohitas to perform religious rites and rituals and they no longer celebrated their own festivals on their own. With the loss of language, they lost their own culture and 80% Paharis do not know their culture.

2. The Pahari language as moribund language

Krauss defines language as moribund language if children are not speaking them now, endangered if children will probably not speaking the in 100 years. Pahari language in the study area is going to be moribund language as Pahari children do not have any interest in learning their language and even the Paharis over 50 years of age can not speak Pahari language. Krauss has suggested three main criteria that can be used to identify language as endangered. They are:

i. The number of speakers currently living

ii. The mean age of native and/or fluent speakers

iii. The percentage of the youngest generation acquiring fluency with the language in question

3. Language death

Language death is a process that affects speech communities where the level of language variety is decreased, eventually resulting no native or fluent speakers.

Similarly the most common process leading to language death is one in which a community of speakers of one language becomes bilingual in another language and gradually shifts allegiance language the second language until they cause to use their original(heritage) language. This is a process of assimilation which may be voluntary or may be forced upon a population. Speakers of some languages particularly regional or minority languages may decide to abandon them based on economic or utilitarian grounds, in favor of language regarded as having greater utility or prestige.

A language is often declared to dead even before the last native speakers of the language die. If there are only a few elderly speakers of a language remains and they no longer use that language for communication then the language is effectively dead.

4. Blockage for privileges due to loss of linguistic identity

They are not speaking their language and it has been a half-century since they abandoned their culture. They have changed their surname also. If they speak their language, it will be their ethnic identity but they are now unknown to their own language. As a result, special provision announced by the government for minorities' will be blocked for them. Sudden setback to Pahari from Harisharan and Shrestha in the last six or seven months have shown that they wanted to get the privilege but remarkably they are still hesitating to revitalize their own culture and language. For them surname may help to deserve the privileges announced by the government.

Topic-067: Sociolinguistic Aspects

- Multilingualism and L3
- Language shift
- Language identity
- The spread of English and English as a lingua franca
- Variation and Variability

Multilingualism and L3

Multilingualism is the situation in which a person has command of, or a community uses, two or more languages.

Accordingly, one has to distinguish between multilingualism on the micro-level (individual multilingualism) and multilingualism on the macro-level (societal multilingualism).

Multilingualism on the Macro-Level

Multilingualism is a worldwide phenomenon and, perhaps surprisingly, monolingual persons or societies are exceptional. The misbelief that mono-lingualism is the rule is due to the fact that there are only few countries where more than one official language is spoken.

Not even a quarter of the world's nations recognize two official languages (e.g. India, Canada), and only six nations have three or more languages as official languages (e.g. Switzerland, South Africa). Even in those cases there might be other vernaculars and regional languages which are not officially recognized. But this is unavoidable in administrative and bureaucratic respects (Edwards 1995, 33; Edwards 2007, 448).

Another problem with multilingualism is one of measurement, i.e. the assessment of the extent of multilingualism in a country and, connected with that, the assessment of the proficiency level that is required for a person to count as multilingual.

Reasons for Multilingualism

Multilingualism arises when languages get into contact. The reason for language contact is the simple need of communication between human beings with different linguistic backgrounds. Further reasons for multilingualism are trade, religion, multilingual federations and political union (Edwards 2007, 449/450). Canada, for instance, incorporates English and a French 'charter' group. There is often cultural and educational motivation that prompts people to consider second-or-third language acquisition (Matras 2009, 48).

Language Shift

Language death is the culmination of a process whereby a speech community moves from primary use of one language to another in a process that is known as language shift.

Fishman (1991) defines it as a "process whereby intergenerational continuity of the heritage language is proceeding negatively, with fewer 'speakers, readers, writers'" (Fishman 1991:1).

In many cases, however, the shift may be more abrupt than Fishman's definition implies, and the number of speakers can drop off considerably from one generation to the next. Often, studies that fall under the category of language shift may be distinguished from those that focus on language death in that they tend to examine the structural changes from the receding language (L1) as opposed to examining the structural changes in the receding language itself.

Language Identity

Consistent with its view of language as universal, abstract systems, the more traditional 'linguistics applied' approach to the study of language use views individual language users as stable, coherent, internally uniform beings in whose heads the systems reside.

How you talk, dress, behave is an important way of displaying who you are – indicates your social identity.

Identity is something we are constantly building and negotiating all our lives through our interaction with others. Identity is also multifaceted - people switch into different roles at different times in different situations. Language not only expresses identities but also constructs them. Language and Identity examines the inter-relationships between language and identities. It finds that they are so closely interwoven, that words themselves are inscribed with ideological meanings. When someone changes their way of speaking because they feel they are being looked upon by others, it means that they are changing their identity. Speaking is an identity and it differs from person to person because each has slang and talks different. This sets their identity based on language. Language use and identity are conceptualized rather differently in a sociocultural perspective on human action. Here, identity is not seen as singular, fixed, and intrinsic to the individual. Rather, it is viewed as socially constituted, a reflexive, dynamic product of the social, historical and political contexts of an individual's lived experiences.

The relationship between language and identity will always involve a complex mix of individual, social and political factors which work to construct people as belonging to a social group, or to exclude them from it.

In his *Language and Identity: National, Ethnic, Religious* John Joseph (2004) attempts to show that language and identity are ultimately inseparable.

Thinking about language and identity ought to improve our understanding of who we are in our own eyes and in other people's, and consequently it should deepen our comprehension of social interaction. Each of us, after all, is engaged with language in a lifelong project of constructing who we are, and who everyone is that we meet, or whose utterances we simply hear or read. (Joseph 2004a: 13, 14)

Variation and Variability

Human behavior is characterized by variation i.e. each human individual has a large repertoire of motor, cognitive, and social actions that can be arranged in virtually endless combinations. This repertoire allows for a flexible adjustment to changing conditions, including the creation of new solutions. The term linguistic variation (or simply variation) refers to regional, social, or contextual differences in the ways that a particular language is used. Variation between languages, dialects, and speakers is known as inter-speaker variation.

In some situations, speakers may choose not to converge, but instead either to maintain their own variety (linguistic maintenance), or move to a more extreme variety of their dialect (linguistic divergence). The question of group affiliation and identity can determine the choices a speaker makes out how to speak, and for the bilinguals or multilinguals, which language to use.

English as a Lingua Franca

The term lingua Franca was originally formed, by Arabic, Lisan-al-farang, the Arabic speakers used it to communicate with the European travelers. A lingua franca also known as a bridge language and common language used to make communication possible between people who do not share a native language in particular when it is a third language, distinct from both native languages. The term lingua franca usually means "any lingual medium of communication between people of different mother tongues, for whom it is a second language."

English as a lingua franca is a “contact language” between persons who share neither a common native tongue nor a common culture, and for whom English is the chosen as language of communication. The way English is used as a lingua franca is heavily dependent on the specific situation of use. Speakers accommodate to each other's cultural backgrounds and may also use a common language understandable for both. Speakers accommodate to each other's cultural backgrounds and may also use a common language understandable for both.

Topic-068: Educational Aspects

1. Vocabulary Acquisition
2. Task Based Language Teaching (TBLT)
3. Teacher Education

1. Vocabulary Acquisition

Acquiring wider and deeper vocabulary knowledge is paramount in the pursuit of becoming a proficient foreign language speaker. Shaw and McMillion (2008, p, 141) show that vocabulary is related to reading speed by comparing native speakers of English with Swedish English as a foreign language (EFL) students.

2. Receptive and Productive Vocabularies

Receptive and productive vocabularies are two terms important for a more global understanding of vocabulary learning. **Receptive vocabulary**, in broad terms, implies the understanding of the meaning of a word encountered in speech or writing.

Productive vocabulary, in the same broad strokes, is the portfolio of words available within a learner's inter-language for production.

Vocabulary Hierarchy

These concepts have been made more detailed and precise by Laufer and Goldstein (2004) who defined vocabulary into a hierarchy of four levels:

- Active recall (being able to use the target word)
- passive recall (understanding the meaning of the target word)
- Active recognition (recognizing the word when given its meaning)
- Passive recognition (the ability to recognize meaning when given options)

It can be argued that lack of vocabulary knowledge often has a more severe impact on clarity and fluency of spoken and written language than insufficient grammatical knowledge or poor pronunciation (Hedge, 2000).

2. Task Based Language Teaching (TBLT)

Task Based Language Teaching (TBLT) is an approach which offers students opportunities to actively engage in communication in order to achieve a goal or complete a task. TBLT seeks to develop students' inter-language through providing task and then using language to solve it.

It was first developed by N. Prabhu in Bangalore, Southern India. According to Prabhu students may learn more effectively when their minds are focused on the task, rather than on the language they are using. (Prabhu, 1987; as cited in Littlewood, 2004)

Benefits of TBLT

- TBLT makes the performance of meaningful tasks central to the learning process.

-
- Instead of a language structure or function to be learnt, students are presented with a task they have to perform or a problem they have to solve.

Why do we Use a Task-based Approach

- Tasks can be easily related to students' real-life language needs.
- They create contexts that facilitate second language acquisition.
- Tasks create opportunities for focusing on form.
- Students are more likely to develop intrinsic motivation in a task-based approach.
- A task-based approach enables teachers to see if students are developing the ability to communicate in an L2

3. Teacher Education

It is well known that the quality and extent of learner achievement are determined primarily by teacher competence, sensitivity and teacher motivation. According to Goods Dictionary of Education Teacher education means, —all the formal and non-formal activities and experiences that help to qualify a person to assume responsibilities of a member of the educational profession or to discharge his responsibilities more effectively.

The perspective of teacher education was therefore very narrow and its scope was limited. As W.H. Kilpatrick put it, —Training is given to animals and circus performers, while education is to human beings.

- Teacher education encompasses:
- Teaching skills
- Pedagogical theory and
- Professional skills

Teacher Education = Teaching Skills + Pedagogical theory + Professional skills.

Teaching Skills

Teaching skills would include:

- Providing training and practice in the different techniques.
- Approaches and strategies that would help the teachers to plan and impart instruction.
- Provide appropriate reinforcement and conduct effective assessment.
- It includes effective classroom management skills, preparation and use of instructional materials and communication skills.
- Pedagogical theory includes the philosophical, sociological and psychological considerations that would enable the teachers to have a sound basis for practicing the teaching skills in the classroom.
- Professional skills include the techniques, strategies and approaches that would help teachers to grow in the profession and also work towards the growth of the profession.

ENG522 – Bitcoin by Maha Malik

Lesson-14

LANGUAGE PLANNING AND LANGUAGE POLICY (LPP)

Outline:

Language Planning and Language Policy

- Understanding the Term Planning
- Defining Language Planning
- Language Planning Vs. Language Policy
- History of Language Planning

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- Approaches to Language Planning
 - Language Planning: Haugen's Model
 - Language Planning: Critical Issues
 - Language Planning and Postcoloniality
 - Conclusion

Topic-069: Understanding the Term Planning

It is important to clarify the term planning because as a concept it cuts across disciplines and occupies an important place in subjects like architecture, economics, human resources management, sociology, tourism, and urban planning. Since planning is basically societal (see below for discussion), language planning cannot be discussed in isolation from its social context, and since planning, in Faludi's words, is associated with organizations, one must draw upon social sciences to understand the very concept (Faludi, 1973). In her discussion of language planning, Joan Rubin (1971) deals with the very notion of planning itself before defining language planning. She acknowledges the role of management sciences.¹ "The definition of planning", according to Rubin,

"... has ranged from one specifying an activity that includes the broadest kind of human problem-solving or decision-making to a more limited one specifying an activity that is initiated and supported by some formal body. The more limited definition (of what is still a very complex activity) views planning as an activity whereby goals are established, means are selected, and outcomes predicted in a systematic and explicit manner." (Rubin, 1971: 217-218). Other disciplines have taken a similar approach to defining planning. For example, Schermerhorn, Hunt and Osborn understand planning as a "process of setting objectives" (Schermerhorn et al, 1997: G-3) in which "rules and procedures" are developed (Dressler, 2000:2) to achieve those objectives. There are a few more relevant definitions of planning taken from various disciplines. For example, David (1997) regards planning as plotting of a course of action. Hilgert and Leonard (1997), Robbins, Bergman, and Stagg (1997), and (Fletcher, 1998) unanimously view planning to be about what should be done in the future: it consists of setting goals or objectives and establishing an overall strategy for achieving these goals.

All the above citations have one thing in common: whatever the field of investigation, planning is about formulating a future/futuristic strategic course of action to deal with a given problem. This point seems relevant and valid. However, beyond this point, these definitions suffer, just like the definitions found in specialist dictionaries, encyclopedias, and textbooks, from what Basin in his discussion of the nature of definitions calls "the general epistemological semantic idealism" (Basin, 1979: 228). By this expression Basin seems to mean that understanding of a concept is often conditioned by "formalist essence" which diminishes its contextual-social significance (Basin, 1979, especially his concluding chapter). It may be argued that 'planning' is not a neutral, hygienic concept, but a practice aimed at changing or affecting states of affairs or a course of action. The above definitions are semantically descriptive and imply developmental organicity, but they do not seem to define

what new realities the working of planning creates (or tries to create), and the role of politics and ideology that underlie planning. Understanding planning without understanding socio-political-economic realities and agendas behind it causes confusion and reduces it to an ambiguous “meta-narrative” (Allmendinger and Chapman, 1999: 3). **Planners deal with issues that affect organizations and societies (or polities) in which human beings interact.** It is but natural that at times planners have their own views, self-interest or bias, or are ideologically motivated: What they plan ‘for the people’ can actually run counter to the interests of those whose lives are supposed to be improved through planning. For example, government-backed urban planners can acquire a piece of land in the name of progress and development, but in reality their purpose is to grab prime land by driving away squatters or indigenous people. Tollefson narrates such an incident in which urban planning and language planning based upon hidden micro-capitalist agenda are subtly interwoven.

Planning purports to change a state of affairs, and since change brings about consequences, it always affects people either favorably or unfavorably. This brings in the dynamics of power. Change and power dynamics are so closely interrelated that one can define power the way one defines change: Power, argues Luke, is about “bringing about consequences” (Luke, 1978: 634). Hence, planning serves and protects the interests of the powerful. Planners, whether working on behalf of the powerful or on their own, wield a lot of “political-economic power” (Eastman, 1991: 135) because of different resources at their disposal, and their power to effect changes in a polity, organization, or system. It is this fact that has led scholars like M.J. Minett to assert that planning is concerned with “manipulating things, not only understanding them” (cited by Faludi, 1973: 14). The role of planners and ideologues becomes indistinguishable given the political (or manipulative) nature of their jobs: Planning is no different from ideology because both serve interests of the powerful. Allmendinger and Chapman (1999: 4) have also noted this fact, Planning now encompasses such a variety of issues that one could include everything from saving the planet to where swings should go in a children’s playground. . . . Planners themselves are having their technical and apolitical stance challenged by the increasingly political and inclusive nature of the subject. (Emphasis added.) The bottom line of the above discussion is that while examining the very term planning one must not just be content with its given meaning(s), but try to understand its consequences too, and also the hidden agenda, power relations, conflicts, and ideological interests behind those consequences. Lovejoy’s approach to understanding the world we live in supports this view: “In the whole series of creeds and movements going under one name, and in each of them separately, it is needful to go behind the superficial appearance of the singleness and identity, to crack the shell which holds the mass together, if we are to see the real units [of meaning]” (Lovejoy, 1964: 6).

Topic-070: Defining Language Planning

As mentioned above, planning is an issue that plays an important part in a number of disciplines and subjects, but the modus operandi of planning may differ when applied in different contexts. Rubin and Jernudd’s definition of language planning is not very different from

Weinstein's (see the footnote below); they call language planning a deliberate change in a language by an organization set up to bring about the change. They argue that language planning in all cases is "future-oriented; that is, the outcomes of policies and strategies must be specified in advance of action taken" (Rubin and Jernudd, 1971: xvi). Wardhaugh (1986: 336) defines language planning as "an attempt to interfere deliberately with a language or one its varieties". In Wiley's opinion, "language planning entails the formation and implementation of a policy designed to prescribe, or influence, the language(s) and varieties of language that will be used and the purposes for which they will be used" (Wiley, 1996: 107-108). For Fasold, "Language planning is usually seen as an explicit choice among alternatives. This, in turn, implies that there has been an evaluation of alternatives with the one that is chosen having been evaluated as the best" (Fasold, 1987: 246). Fishman says that language planning is done at the national level and defines it as "the organized pursuit of solutions to language problems" (Fishman 1974: 79). All the above definitions of language planning imply de jure legitimacy behind language planning. A democratic government that does language planning is authorized to legislate through popular will and consent. Hence, the Galbally Report (1978), the Senate Committee Report on National Language Policy (1984), and the Lo Bianco Report (1987) in Australia, and the Bullock Report (1975) and the Swan Report (1985) in the UK had government authorization and political legitimacy. As it has been discussed in the case of planning, language planning too is not a straightforward practice: Governments are guided by their own assumptions and ideologies in planning language. Language planning can create as many problems as it intends or claims to solve. More often than not, it is seldom that language policies affecting minorities are welcomed by them, and in the case of Pakistan it would be interesting to note that language planning has seldom been friendly to the majority (in fact, majorities) of the population (for details, see Rahman, 1999 and 2002; Mansoor, 2005; Zaidi 2011). Although some linguists like Putz (1997) have argued that an adequate language policy program must take account of the various opinions and beliefs of the speakers belonging to a social or ethnic group, many sociolinguists have shown that language planning which is supposed to benefit minorities actually makes them feel being discriminated against

Topic-071: Language Planning VS Language Policy

Cooper (1989), Schiffman (1996), and Kaplan and Baldauf (2003) argue that language policy and language planning are two different concepts: language policy is about decision-making and goal-setting; language planning is about implementing policies to obtain results. On the contrary, Rubin (1971) argues that language policy is a part of language planning. According to her, language planning is comprised of four phases: fact-finding, policy determination, implementation, and evaluation. Fishman, Das Gupta, Jernudd, and Rubin (1971) support Rubin's preference for the term language planning. They argue that the process of

language planning has four major divisions: “policy formulation, codification, elaboration, and implementation” (Fishman, et al, 1971: 293). Many linguists prefer the term language planning to language policy or language planning and language policy because they take ‘planning’ to be inclusive of policy. For example, Ashworth (1985), Wardhaugh (1986), Fasold (1987), and Ferguson (2006) prefer language planning. In *Sociolinguistics: A reader and coursebook* (Coupland and Jaworski, 1997), there is not a single entry on “language policy”; the term language planning is used in the chapter that deals with language planning and language policy. Mansoor (2005) too subsumes language policy under language planning in her discussion of the history of language education in Pakistan. Carroll (2001) sums up her discussion of the issue by saying the term language planning is the most widely accepted “umbrella term for the broad range of activities seeking to change language and its use” (Carroll, 2001: 13).

Topic-072: History of Language Planning

Language planning is a phenomenon that can be called post-colonial (Pakistan, India, Malaysia, Algeria after World War II), post-revolutionary (the Soviet Union in 1917, socialist Ethiopia in the 1980s), or post-independence (Norway in the early 19th century, Central Asia republics after the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991). Not all language planners of these “post” countries had the same objectives: some of the newly independent countries decided to continue to use the language of their erstwhile colonial masters (e.g., English in Singapore, India, the Philippines, and Papua New Guinea). They had their reasons: the colonial language meant administrative continuity; it was extremely helpful in functioning on the international scene also, and it could keep a lid on ethnic divisiveness that the introduction of new local languages (at the perceived cost of other languages) could have brought on. In the case of many newly independent countries, a new national language was synonymous with a new nation. It has been claimed that LP is an official/governmental long-term, sustained attempt to solve the communication problems of a community by studying the various languages and dialects it uses (see, e.g., Ashraf, 1994; Davis, 1994; Amienyi, 2005; Simpson, 2007). Most sociolinguists agree that in the postcolonial world, newly independent nation-states feel need to unify their peoples, often a set of ethnicities, for the purpose of nation building (Holmes 1992; Williams 1992; Daoust 1997; Wiley 1996). Since LP is held to be an instrument towards achieving destiny of a nation, policies that have been adopted at national or territorial levels claim to be geared towards contributing to nation-building (Ingram, 1994). Thus, since language policies are part of national agenda of development and “entry into the modern world” (Eastman 1983: 31), they are goal-oriented and involve decision-making (Cobarrubias 1983; Cooper 1989), and since LP involves “an explicit choice among alternatives” (Fasold 1987: 246), language planners are supposed to be mindful of the choices they make. Selection of one language or dialect, known as status planning, can be perceived as a threat to other languages and/or dialects if the speakers of the latter come to see the selected language/dialect to be thriving at the cost of their own. Tollefson (1991) calls it language hegemony. Minority languages, in Williams’ words, are supposed to be at risk because one important feature of “minority languages is that they tend

to be systematically separated from those domains which are crucial for social reproduction, domains such as work, administration, etc.” (Williams 1992: 147).

Topic-073: Approaches to Language Planning

Understanding an issue depends upon how people approach it. “What language planners,” says Williams, “seek to do will derive largely from how they perceive language change” (Williams, 1992: 123). Tollefson (1991) identifies two approaches to LP: neoclassical and historical-structural by which he means methods employed to do LP. His discussion of the approaches can be summarized thus: The neoclassical approach puts emphasis on individual choices where “the rational calculus of individuals is considered to be the proper focus of research” (Tollefson, 1991: 27). He also says that the neoclassical approach is synchronic as it deals with current language circumstances. Also, it is a-historical and amoral, and assumes that people involved in LP are apolitical.

The historical-structural approach, on the contrary, emphasizes centrality of socio-historical factors in LP, takes into account past relationships between the groups who will be affected by LP, and claims that people have strong political views. Tollefson distinguishes the historical-structural approach from the neoclassical approach by arguing that while “the neoclassical approach emphasizes the rational decisions of individuals, the historical-structural approach emphasizes the origins of the costs and benefits confronting individuals and groups” (Tollefson, 1991: 31-32). The neoclassical approach cannot not be ignored, however. Given that it focuses on formal properties of language and on the importance of an individual’s motivation in learning a language, the neoclassical approach can guard scholars against putting too much emphasis on the macro factors in LP. The historical-structural approach is not perfect, and behind its claimed critical stance may lurk ideologies and group interests. A good challenge for a researcher is to combine both factors, individual and political-societal, in dealing with an LP scenario in hand. To a question like which of the two approaches is better, one can only say that it would be difficult to altogether reject one approach in favor of the other. However, a few observations can be made. For example, despite its seemingly scholarly dispassionateness, the neoclassical approach has a few problems. If we look at the societies/countries where LP was done, we find a lot of controversy and protests followed in the wake of LP. India’s example, a huge mosaic of languages and ethnicities, is instructive. Shortly after independence, India wanted to realize its pre-independence nationalist dream of having “an Indian language” in place of English which was supposed to be “a symbol of slavery” (Nayar, 1967: 12). The government decided to make Hindi the official language India which led to extreme violence in the Southern states, especially in Tamil Nadu. Das Gupta (1970) details how a Madras State Anti-Hindi Conference on January 17, 1965, a week before the January 26 date scheduled for Hindi’s ascent to the role of sole official language of India, was organized to protest against “Hindi imperialism”.

The campaign against Hindi cost sixty-six lives, which included two persons who committed suicide. The result was that the government had to devise the Three Language Formula of education which stipulated that non-Hindi speakers would study their regional languages,

Hindi, and English (or another European language), and Hindi speakers would study Hindi, English, and another language. According to Sridhar, the Three Language Formula was “a compromise between the demands of the various pressure groups and has been hailed as a masterly—if imperfect—solution to a complicated problem. It seeks to accommodate the interests of group identity (mother tongues and regional languages), national pride and unity (Hindi), and administrative efficiency and technological progress (English)” (Sridhar, 1989: 22).

Topic-074: Language Planning: Haugen’s Model

There are more than one LP models available to researchers. For example, in his discussion of what he calls language development with reference to language planning, Ferguson (1968) comes up with his three-category model: graphization (choice of an alphabetic system, spelling, punctuation, and capitalization), standardization (developing the so-called ‘best’ variety that will be the language of a speech community), and modernization (expansion of the lexis of a chosen variety so that it can keep up with the ever-increasing needs of society). For Cobarrubias (1983), there are four ideologies which can have great impact on decision-making in language planning in a particular society: linguistic assimilation (everyone in society should learn its dominant language), linguistic pluralism (the recognition that more than one language can be given its due status), vernacularisation (restoration or revival of an indigenous language for national or official purposes), and internationalism (implementation of a non-indigenous language as official language). Ferguson’s and Cobarrubias’ models have received good attention from scholars researching LP. However, it is the Haugen Model that has dominated discussions on LP since it was first enunciated by Einar Haugen in the mid 1960s. Haugen is a pioneer in the field of LP. In one of his earliest works on LP, Haugen deals with what he calls the “taxonomy of linguistic description” which is “greatly hampered by the ambiguities and obscurities attaching to the terms ‘language’ and ‘dialect’” (Haugen, 1997 [1966]: 341). After clarifying the difference between language and dialect,⁴ he almost imperceptibly introduces his model of standardization by saying that a so-called “underdeveloped” language is the one which “has not been employed in all the functions that a language can perform in a society larger than that of the local tribe or peasant village (1997 [1966]: 344). After giving examples of the development of different languages, he defines his model: (1) selection of norm, (2) codification of form, (3) elaboration of function, and (4) acceptance by the community. Selection refers to a language or a variety, which will be developed for broader communication. Codification (also known as corpus planning) refers to “developing the form of a language, i.e. its linguistic structure, including phonology, grammar, and lexicon” (1997 [1966]: 348). Elaboration refers to the scale of the utilization in writing. Both codification and elaboration are distinct. Haugen gives the distinction thus: “As the ideal goal of a standard language, codification may be defined as minimal variation in form, elaboration as maximal variation in function” (1997 [1966]: 348; italics in the original). Because the codification of form is inherently delimiting, Haugen argues that the elaboration of function counterbalances it. Expanding on selection of norm, Haugen claims that it is very important because the success of codification or elaboration is dependent upon it. He is

careful enough not to lose sight of conflict, politics, power, and ideology in the selection of a language as norm. In his own words, Where a new norm is to be established, the problem will be as complex as the sociolinguistic structure of the people involved. There will be little difficulty where everyone speaks virtually alike, a situation rarely found. . . . To choose any one vernacular as a norm means to favor the group of people speaking that variety. It gives them prestige as norm-bearers and a head start in the race for power and position. (1997 [1966]: 349). The last part of Haugen's model, acceptance, is "part of the life of a language" (1997 [1966]: 350). A norm must be accepted by a "body of users", and the most important factor in the acceptance is that it (the norm) "must somehow contribute to the well-being of the learners" and also "offer its users material rewards in the form of power and position" (1997 [1966]: 350). Haugen concludes his essay by saying that selection of norm and codification "refer primarily to form" and elaboration of function and acceptance by community to "the function of language" (1997: 350). Selection of norm and acceptance by community "are concerned with society", and codification and elaboration of function are concerned "with language" (1997 [1966]: 350-351). Haugen believes in the validity and strength of his model that he presented in 1966. Writing in 1983 he claimed that he had seen "nothing in the literature [on language planning] to make me reject the model as a framework for the starting point of language planners everywhere" (Haugen, 1983: 269). **The strength of Haugen's model is that it tries to combine the neoclassic model with the historical-structural model. He brings in the neoclassic model when he claims that LP is about systematizing a language in which the written word, which is taught, has complete precedence over the spoken word; to him a language must be based on its literary form** (Haugen, 1972 [1962]). But he is aware of the importance of norms of society and their influence on language and language planning when he says that if "dialects are to be tolerated, the teaching of tolerance must begin with other and more basic features of inequality in society than the purely linguistic one" (Haugen, 1972 [1962]: 253). In another place Haugen says, "Wherever language problems have appeared, there has been some form of what we have chosen to call 'language planning', a form of social planning" (Haugen, 1985: 7).

Topic-075: Language Planning: Critical Issues

Who plans language? Why? For who? Is LP cement that binds people (nation-building)? Is it divisive? Are there hidden ideologies in LP? Is LP hegemonic? Does it create a class of subalterns? Is LP only a macro phenomenon (affecting society, country, or state), or is there a micro dimension to it too (the family as a language planner)? Is there such a thing as family/home LP enforced by those members of the family who wield power (e.g., parents)? Is LP is a result of ideology? Does it have anything to do with, say, language attitudes and diglossia? Does LP empower anyone? If yes, who?

Language, says Terdiman, is "always engaged with the realities of power" (Terdiman, 1985: 38). In the post-World War I scenario, German in the United States was almost wiped out from schools: between 1915 and 1948, students studying German dropped from 25 to 1 percent (Leibowitz cited by Wiley, 1996: 132). Commenting on this, Wiley says that in order to

understand this event “a historical-structural analysis is necessary” (Wiley, 1996: 132). The nexus between LMLS and language planning is very strong. David (2008) has put it thus, There are several reasons for language shift and death. Apart from natural disasters resulting in the death of a speech community, many man-made factors can cause such disasters. One of these man-made factors that can cause language shift and death is language policies. (David, 2008: 79). The issue of identity and social standing of who plans language for who is also an important one. At times LP is done by those who have very few stakes in a language and its speakers. Harlech-Jones, for example, says that in Africa language planning, is done by people who have been thoroughly unrepresentative of the polity on whose behalf they have affected to speak. They have been the unelected decision-takers and politicians of one- and no-party states, relying for power at first on a brief and vacuous populism following decades of repression, dedicated to nothing more noble than the enhancement of their personal positions and the enrichments of their own pockets. (Harlech-Jones: 1997: 224; also see, Kaplan and Baldauf). Many linguists view LP to be an instrument through which inequality and powerlessness are bred. This is because LP works with, and not against, prevailing “social currents” (Romaine, 2002: 19), an argument anticipated by Haugen who called LP “a form of social planning” (Haugen, 1985: 7). Tollefson perceptively argues that language policies are both the outcome and arena of power struggle (Tollefson, 1995). Pennycook, Garcia, and Watson-Gegeo and Gegeo in their respective studies in *Power and Inequality in Language Education* (1995) try to unravel the hidden agenda in language policies. English, says Pennycook, has become a very powerful means of inclusion and exclusion. He gives the example of Kenya where despite Swahili’s status as the official national language, the dominance of English in Kenya’s “economic and legal spheres. . . has sought more to prepare an elite for higher education than to educate a citizenry capable of maintaining a policy of socialist self-reliance” (Pennycook, 1995: 41). The situation seems even worse in the Solomon Islands where Watson-Gegeo and Gegeo found that English is spoken by no more than 10 to 15 percent of the population, and yet it is required for all middle to higher jobs in private and public sectors, which in the words of these scholars contributes to “the undermining of traditional sources of knowledge, growing inequalities between urban and rural areas, and the emergence of social classes” (Watson-Gegeo and Gegeo, 1995: 66). Scholars like Auerbach and Martin-Jones and Saxena have drawn attention to the micro-sites of the ideologies as they are played out in the name of ESL or bilingualism: the classroom. Auerbach (1995) claims that an ESL classroom is one place where powerlessness is reinforced through the exclusion of the learners’ knowledge, life experience, and language resources. Martin-Jones and Saxena (1995) argue that in England, despite all the rhetoric about the benefits of supporting bilingualism, the very marginalization and inferior status of bilingual support teachers greatly reduced learning opportunities for bilingual children: policies, power asymmetries and pedagogical practices led to containing rather than supporting bilinguals. In his study of schools in Australia, Bullivant has found that the classroom reproduces the interests of the ruling class, and the result

is that the working class students' life chances are reduced because they end up in "low-paid, repetitive, and unrewarding jobs" (Bullivant, 1995: 61).

Tollefson's *Planning language, planning inequality* (1991) also supports this view of the planning as a term, concept, and practice. On the use of descriptive terms and definitions in the area of language planning, his remark is worth quoting, It is the language research itself that dehumanizes and depersonalizes. . . . Thus research investigates the impact of 'plans' which are 'formulated' and 'implemented' upon 'subjects' and 'populations' by means of 'empirical' research involving 'studies', 'data', and 'generalizations'. . . . In the impersonal language of research, people do not exist as living, breathing, feeling human beings. . . these terms are not characteristic of people at all: they are fictions that limit, restrict, determine, and disempower. (Tollefson, 1991: 205) Last, a realistic research on LP must take into account the LP done in the home domain. Phillipson and Skutnabb-Kangas have argued, "Language policy is a super-ordinate category, within which fall operational concerns such as language planning and, as one form of normative regulation, language legislation" (Phillipson and Skutnabb-Kangas, 1997: 116). This is true in terms of the macro view of LP, but there is another, micro, aspect of LP. Kaplan and Baldauf call it "micro-planning" (Kaplan and Baldauf, 1997: 88). Omoniyi uses the term "microlanguage literacy planning" for it (Omoniyi, forthcoming). The home is a quintessential site for micro-language planning; it is the last bastion of language maintenance. What happens if, say, parents do LP in the home forbidding use of one language and making sure that another language is spoken? For instance, the Urhobo of the Niger-delta part of Nigeria are ashamed of Urhobo, their mother tongue, and generally are not willing to speak it to their children. They prefer the English pigeon spoken in their area (for details, see Ojaide and Aziza, 2007). Implications of such LP in the home can be extremely destructive for the language, which has been forbidden.

Topic-076: Language Planning and Postcoloniality

LP is a postcolonial phenomenon as most of the nations who implemented LP were former colonies of various Western powers. Post-independence linguistic fervor in countries like Tanzania, Namibia, Malaysia, and Somalia can be cited where new national identity-seeking slogans aimed at building new nations argued in favor of local languages at the expense of the languages of the colonizers (Fierman 1991: Chapter 1). One could hardly distinguish between language planners and politicians; hence the validity of Fierman's contention that language planners are politicians who do not always reveal the motivations or goals which underlie their actions; their "actions frequently produce unexpected results and the environment in which their policies are implemented may include factors which they did not adequately anticipate" (Fierman, 1991: 5). However, it may be pointed out here that this phenomenon is not a matter of being able to "anticipate" or not. New-nation-new-language can be a manipulative move by the ruling elites (the beneficiaries of the former colonial master's legacies and policies) to continue to hold on to power. The people, the masses, are given a (new) national language in which they are educated in government schools, but the colonial language remains the truly important language through its official status. Thus despite

Swahili's promotion as Kenya's national language, Tagalog in the Philippines, and Malay in Malaysia, English has remained the language of prestige and political-economic mobility in which the ruling elite educate their children (Watson 1983; Zuengler 1985; Tollefson 1986). Walker (1984) observes that the elite in newly independent countries realize that a status reduction of the former colonial language will ultimately undermine their own status and "put them much more on a par with other speakers" (Walker, 1984: 172). Scotton (1982) too makes more or less the same observation when he says, "The fostering of the colonial language is held in check because it best serves the elite's socio-economic interests, and they do not mind even if the national-official language divide is brought about at the cost of limiting national integration" (Scotton, 1982: 69).

Topic-077: Conclusion

It may be argued that planning language is planning inequality in socio-linguistic-economic terms if one language is elevated at the cost of another language(s). LP is done on certain so-called nationalist principles. Thus, the French language is supported and promoted because it stands for being French, Breton, Provencal, and as a result, many immigrant languages such as Arabic and Vietnamese are casualties. The problem is that a national language is more than an official language because it is "the symbol of people's identity" (Fasold, 1987: 247). However, identity is per se frictional, indeed conflictual, aspect of social functioning. Language standardization is an instance of invasion on and exclusion of minority and/or native languages in the name of national unity. This is why, LP has not been a smooth sailing for language planners in most of the countries of the world because it is, in Wardhaugh's words, a deliberate "human intervention into natural processes of language change, diffusion and erosion" (Wardhaugh, 2010: 379). One might add to Wardhaugh's claim by saying that LP often results in subalternization of certain languages and privileging of the language spoken by powerful elites even if it is done with the best of intentions. Jomo Kenyatta promoted Swahili at the cost of his own Kikuyu and many other languages. Now all these languages are slowly becoming extinct. It is certainly the case that in our world where there is a scramble for ever-shrinking resources, sociolinguistic Darwinism is an unpleasant fact. Nevertheless, this does not have to lead to the flourishing of some languages and the others going the way of extinction. In any polity, possibilities exist to promote minority and native languages on communal, if not national, levels. In order to do so, the communities themselves have to take the initiative. However, how far minority communities are independent and powerful is a moot point. Sociolinguistic situations often hide histories of hegemony, power struggle, and suppression.

CRITICAL APPLIED LINGUISTICS

Outline:

- Introduction
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Topic-078: Introduction

Before we move in to the discussion of critical applied linguistics, it is better first to have a brief look at what the root subject applied linguistics really mean. So applied linguistics is the branch of linguistics (language science) that deals with the foreign and second language education and the study of application of linguistics theories in language related problems. The first concept was the oldest explanation assigned to the subject when the discipline was introduced and coined by the American linguists in 1940. So that, even most applied linguists today prefer to relate the meaning of the discipline to the old concept. But the new approach defines applied linguistics as the application of language theories in diverse linguistic related contexts. These may include the speech pathology, translation, language pedagogy, and other aspects of applied linguistics.

But, when we come to critical applied linguistics, we are dealing with the critical study of the aspects of applied linguistics. It is not a mere addition of criticality to applied linguistics but continuous and sustainable, uninterrupted, skeptical and critical investigation in to the diverse fields of applied linguistics. Critical applied linguistics actually take the strong version of the new definition of applied linguistics, the application of linguist theory in applied contexts like translation, speech disorder, critical pedagogy and others.

Critical applied linguistics is an emergent approach to language use and education that seeks to connect the local conditions of language to broader social formations, drawing connections between classrooms, conversations, textbooks, tests, or translations and issues of gender, class, sexuality, race, ethnicity, culture, identity, politics, ideology or discourse.

The emergence of various “critical” perspectives in applied linguistics since the mid-1980s has been welcomed by some and rejected by others. Some of these perspectives have emerged under overt banners of criticality:

First, critical applied linguistics needs to be understood as far more than just a critique of normative applied linguistics.

Second, although the notion of *critical* is one that is greatly struggled over, critical applied linguistics needs both to avoid a normative politics, and to promote a particular political vision of what is meant by critical.

Third, critical applied linguistics is more than just the sum of related critical approaches to language domains (CDA, critical literacy, and critical pedagogy).

Fourth, critical applied linguistics is also more than just the addition of a political/critical approach to applied linguistics; rather, it raises a host of different questions to be addressed, such as identity, sexuality, power, and performativity.

And **fifth**, it therefore not only suggests a broad conception of applied linguistics, but it also pushes those boundaries further by drawing on a range of theoretical and empirical domains.

For some, critical applied linguistics is little more than a critique of other orientations to applied linguistics.

In the glossary of his introduction to applied linguistics, Davies (1999) provides the following definition: “a judgmental approach by some applied linguists to ‘normal’ applied linguistics on the grounds that it is not concerned with the transformation of society”.

For some applied linguists, critical applied linguistics probably does appear to be little more than a critique of mainstream work. But if it were indeed limited to such a role, it would surely be of only marginal interest.

Topic-079: Major Concerns of Critical Applied Linguistics (Superbly important)

Praxis refers to the integration and cooperation of desire and action or theory and practices. In the traditional view, theory or action is superior and highly respected than practices or desire. The relationship between the two was unequal. The role of practice and desire were suppressed with stereotyped vision. But critical applied linguistics pays due focus on both theory and practice and desire and action. So the unequal power relation between theory and practice as well as desire and action were abolished in the case of critical applied linguistics.

Criticality: Critical applied linguistics is the most critical discipline in dazzling things from diverse angles. Criticality is concerned with critical study of social problems. In fact criticality refers to the logical and examined reflection of things. It is systematic, critical, objective analysis of facts and problems from various angles. As to the beliefs of critical applied linguistics, criticality can be taught in classroom situation. Critical reading, listening, speaking and writing can be taught in language classes. Thus the concept of criticality in applied linguistics also works with the subject itself. Criticality is not just a matter of mapping micro applied linguistics in to the macro social relation, but sustainable critical study of the areas of critical applied linguistics and all social relations and problems.

Critical social study refers to the careful examination of social relation. Critical applied linguistics was based on the assumption that social relation is full of pains and suffrages. So it needs critical examination. The power imbalance, difference, injustice, hegemony, suppression, colonization, subduing and etc. are some of the critical cases that critical applied linguistics majorly deals with. Thus using critical approaches, critical applied linguistics studies the social problems. The study describes, explains, expresses and interprets the social problem. Then it calls for the political interventions. In studying the painful social relation, critical applied linguistics sides the victimized group in the social relations.

Critical school theory: The basic foundation of critical applied linguistics lies on the philosophies of school of critical social theories. The schools were established in Frankfurt, Germany and founded by the famous German scholars, Marxist and neo Marxist thinkers. The theory was based on the existence of pains in social life and concerned with the study of those problems and sought solutions for the same. Frankfurt critical school theory was emanated with sympathy for the people victimized in the social relations. The school deals with detailed study of the society and describe, present and interpret the social problems. The school then calls for the political measures to be taken to solve the problems. A number of fields were based on the assumptions of critical school theory including critical applied linguistics, history, anthropology, sociology, political sciences culture studies, communication studies, medial studies and others.

Self-reflexivity refers to the self-introspection quality of the subjects, critical applied linguistics. In the cases of human being, self-reflexivity deals with an act of listening deep in to our own soul, evaluate ourselves in multiple perspectives as our lives, our success, failure, performances and relations with others. Critical applied linguistics does not only concern with the study of other social and related issues in a critical way. It also critically evaluates itself whether it is well doing its roles or not. So, critical study of the discipline works with itself as well.

Preferred future refers to one of the concerns of critical applied linguistics. Critical applied linguistics deals with critical social studies. In so doing it does not only study the problem plainly just for the sake of studying. But through description, expression, explanation and interpretation of the problems, it works on how to establish harmonious life among individuals, groups, societies and the nations. Thus, the preferred future for all was the main concern and dream of critical applied linguistics. The subject believes that humans are created equally irrespective of nothing else, and life is too short so that everyone needs to entertain life equally, peacefully, richly, abundantly and harmoniously.

Micro-macro relations refer to the application of critical applied linguistics in the study of the larger social problems. Here, micro stands for conceptual and methodological narrowness of applied linguistics in studying the wider, macro social relations and problems. The concept of the relation is to entail the incompleteness of critical applied linguistics in studying the society. It claims that the social problems are intricate so that it needs collaboration with related disciplines including feminism, subalterns, American dreams, post colonialism, gender studies, culture studies, media studies and so forth. Moreover, it needs to work with more autonomous and independent disciplines including sociology, anthropology, history, communication and literature studies and so forth.

Heterosis refers to the autonomy and ideological approaches. The concept was that critical applied linguistics is a sovereign field of study in its own right, but it needs to be integrated with other fields which were based on critical theory. Feminism, postmodernism, colonialism, subaltern studies and others. On top, it needs to be integrated with independent fields as sociology, anthropology, sociolinguistics, culture studies, media and communication studies and other related fields. Therefore, the complex social matters could be explained so further.

Problematizing the givens: The approach here deals with constant questioning of the givens. Some practices which lasted for so long within the community seem as if they have divine role and supernatural origins. Thus, critical applied linguistics deals with these practices, beliefs, attitudes, rituals and all very critically. For instance the relation between men and women pertaining to social relation seems as if it is divine and natural. But in reality not, for it is just a social practice that has sent its root deep in the society and looked as if it is from heavenly father. Thus, such issues are critically dealt in critical applied linguistics. In critical applied linguistics, nothing resists critical scrutiny related to social relations. The socio-economic, political, cultural; the power relation, injustice, right and wrongs, subjugation, suppression, segregation, subdued acts in terms of sex, disability, religious, economic and cultural issues are critically studied.

Comprehensively, critical applied linguistics deals with critical study of all the aspects of applied linguistics. In so doing, the subject has been stratified in to concerns which may contain nine basic elements praxis, criticality, and critical social study, self-reflexivity, preferred future, heterosis, critical

school theory and so forth. In addition to the concerns, critical applied linguistics does have fundamental domains which will be the major issues of discussion in the next sections.

Topic-080: Domains of Critical Applied Linguistics

Domains in the context of critical applied linguistics refer to the major sub-fields of the discipline of critical applied linguistics. The foremost domains of critical applied linguistics subsumes the proceeding major domains: CDA and Critical Literacy, Critical Approach to Translation, Critical Approach to Language Teaching, Critical Approach to Language Testing, Language Planning, Policy and Right, Language, Literacy and Work Place Language Use. Therefore, for the sake of clarification and elaboration purpose, we better have a deep look in to the domains:

CDA AND CRITICAL LITERACY: CDA stands for Critical Discourse Analysis. CDA deals with the study of the text in relation to the context. Critical discourse analysis deals with the study of how language or text is used in a context holding discursive social relation, power, domination, hegemony, control, sexual, racial, subjugation and cultural discriminations are being perpetuated with in the community. As CDA relies on the critical social theory, identifying, describing, explaining and interpreting the problem, it calls for the political intervention standing in the sides of the victimized people in the social relations. CDA and critical literacy often put under critical language awareness (CLA) which contains text analysis, critical pedagogy and critical translations. Critical literacy deals with the reshaping of literacy education for those who were marginalized from literacy education, reading and writing in their own mother tongue. Critical literacy deals with reading and writing in vernacular languages. But because of multiple reasons, peoples could be relegated from the rights to learn to read and write in their own language because of their culture, religion, cast, political affiliation, economic status, gender, sex, physical disabilities and others. Critical literacy does have broader social foundations as do CDA. There are diverse orientations to literacy counting critical pedagogy, feminist and post structural approaches and text analytic approaches. CDA would generally fall in to the last category aimed as it is providing tools for the critical analysis of texts in a context. So critical discourse analysis and critical literacy, stands in the sides of people protected from their own vernacular language. CDA has larger political aim of putting the forms of texts, the processes of production of texts, the process of reading, together with the structure of power that have given rise to them in to crisis. CDA aims to show how linguistic discursive practices are linked to the wider sociopolitical structure of power and domination. It focuses on the role of discourse in the production and challenges of dominance and hegemony.

CRITICAL TRANSLATION: the other most important domain of textual analysis related to critical applied linguistics is translation. Here, the concern of critical applied linguistics is not to study or make critical comments on certain translation works. It is not concerned with the correction of technical problems that occurred as a result of lack of knowledge or experience in translation work. But it is much concerned with the politics of translation, the ways in which translation and interpretation of the original texts of the target languages were related to concerns such as class, gender, difference, ideology, and social context. Translation holds a number of discursive practices and social relations. Moreover, the politics of translation extends to translation from one target language to the others all

the time, the translation of texts from English to other languages and not the other way round; the devaluation of native values, culture, norms and ethics; and the use of standard accent, the power relation between the source and target culture and etc. were sign posts for political nature of translation. Most translation works in the colonial and post-colonial period exactly reflects the political nature of translation. We used to translate from English to other languages and not the reverse. We observe the dominant power relation between the English source language to other target languages.

Thus, translation needs careful observation of what the translation is claiming in conveying meaning, in transferring codes from source to target language. Most translation works of the postcolonial period contains distorted conceptions of the indigenous culture, identity, language, history, politics, ethics, morals and local resources.

CRITICAL APPROACH TO TEACHING: Here, this concept deals with critical observation of language teaching practices. It was based on the assumption that language teaching is not free from political conceptions. This is because schools are social institutions where people can interact and learn from one another. Classroom learning is a talk. So what is there in the society is there in the school. Language pedagogical contexts are mainly associated with class difference-the way in which the target language teachers treat her foreign students, the way foreign students in the target classes evaluate themselves in relation to their identity is the major indication of the language classes. Gender is also an aspect of critical aspect of language teaching. It mainly refers to how females are being treated in the classroom, the due respect they have, the extent to which their sound, needs and interests in a class is considered. Sexuality and sexual identity is also another significant aspect of political nature of language teaching. The ways in which homo, hero, transgender, gays, and lesbians are treated in a class by the curriculum, syllabus, school principals, teachers, students, and related stakeholders were the major focuses of critical language teaching.

The curriculum, syllabus, materials, methods, assessment, feedback provision etc. have political agenda at their deep back. Moreover, the way teachers teach and students learn, the ways in which texts were designed, the syllabus were presented, the way students communicate with teachers, and the style in which students interact together and etc. were never free from the dominant belief in social life. Thus critical applied linguistic dictates critical study of language teaching practices in the school and classroom context in critical and perilous manners.

CRITICAL APPROACH TO TESTING: Language testing has been resistant to critical challenges for long ago. But, since recently, scholars reported what they saw as crucial features of critical language testing. Critical language testing (CLT) starts with the assumption that the act of language testing is not neutral. Rather it is a product of cultural, social, political, educational and ideological agenda that shape the life of individual participants, teachers and students. Thus several features of CLT were mentioned: test takers are seen as political subjects in political context, tests are deeply embodied in cultural, educational, and political arena where different ideological and social forms are in straggle making it difficult to consider that a test is just a test. CLT asks whose agendas are used through tests; it demands that what vision of the society tests presupposes, it asks whose knowledge the test is based on, and whether this knowledge is negotiable; it considers the meaning of test scores and the extent to which this is open to interpretation; and it challenges psychometric tradition of language testing.

The conception also introduced an important paradigms shift and put many new criteria for understanding validity in to play: consequential, systemic, interpretive and ethical all of which have more to do with the effects of test than what criteria of internal validity. The argument is that language testing is always political that we need to become aware of the effects of tests and that the way forward is to develop more domestic tests in which test takers and other local bodies are given greater involvement in planning, construction, administration, correction and noticing. Thus, there is a demand to see the domains of applied linguistics from classroom to text and tests, as naturally bound with larger social, cultural and political context.

As teaching, testing is not free from conveying the dominant beliefs, philosophies, hegemony and others in a society. Critical applied linguistics looks in to how tests are planned, designed, administered, corrected, notified and interpreted. Behind each steps, there is political agenda to run with. The way in which test are planned and conducted may not just to evaluate students' academic performance alone, but also there is a secret to run. Similarly planning, administration, correction and notification were associated political agenda. For instance, if the test constructor, administer, corrector and the potential students are from the same social, cultural, political, economic background, the students could benefit much form it. But the other side of the students would be victimized. So, testing needs care as to the views of critical applied linguistics. Thus the contents, administration, correction, notification of tests must be critically studded.

The argument claims that language tests must be indigenous, locally constructed; culture free, corrected through psychometric and none psychometric means, serve the interest of the minority, and needs to fulfill validity, reliability, practicality, backwash effects criteria. If the test fails to do so the results would not be valid.

LANGUAGE POLICY AND RIGHT: Language policy and rights are close elements. Language policy always favors the rights of one language and at the same time disfavors the others. Both policy and rights are political in concept. Language policy making is the duty of the politicians, so that the way they decide how to use one language either in the office, community, or educational context are all a matter of politics. Currently, mono-legalism is under threat, while multilingualism is prospering. Similarly the extension of alien language in a local context is a hazard for local language. For instance, the global status of English is a deadly threat for most local languages as it causes power imbalance and raise a question of right which is called language imperialism. Language colonialism is the state where local languages are under the threat and control of a foreign language. Scholars are warning the world to take care of the effect of multilingualism over the monolinguals and the mother tongue before severe risks to come.

LANGUAGE, LITERACE AND WORKPLACE: It refers to the use of language in work places. The ways on which different professionals use language to communicate in the workplace reflects discursive relation.

Dominance, power, suppression and other forms of discursive relations were reproduced in professional workplace. Study shows that the communication among the prosecutor and the suspect, the doctor and the patient, the boss and subordinate were in most cases associated with power imbalance, hegemony, suppression and subjugations. Moreover, some empirical studies also indicate

that women often suppressed in workplace not because of the soundness of her ideas, but just because she is a woman, feminine. So, workplace language use needs critical studies.

Generally, critical applied linguistics contains five major domains: CDA and language literacy, critical approaches to translation, teaching, testing, and language planning and policy and language, literacy and work place language use. These are only some of the common domains of critical applied linguistics and these are not complete enumerations. To windup, critical applied linguistics contains major concerns and domains. The concerns are the basic premises for critical applied linguistics; while, the domains contain subdivisions under the subject.

Topic-081: Critical Discourse Analysis and Critical Literacy

There are clearly major affinities and overlaps between critical applied linguistics and other, named, critical areas such as critical literacy and critical discourse analysis. It is possible, however, to see critical literacy in terms of the pedagogical application of CDA, and therefore a quite central concern for critical applied linguistics.

Critical approaches to literacy, according to Luke (1997), “are characterized by a commitment to reshape literacy education in the interests of marginalized groups of learners, who on the basis of gender,

Luke and Freebody (1997) explain that “although critical literacy does not stand for a unitary approach, it marks out a coalition of educational interests committed to engaging with the possibilities that the technologies of writing and other modes of inscription offer for social change, cultural diversity, economic equity, and political enfranchisement”.

Orientations to Critical Literacy

Thus, as Luke (1997) goes on to argue, although critical approaches to literacy share an orientation toward understanding literacy (or literacies) as social practices related to broader social and political concerns, There are a number of different orientations to critical literacy, including Freirean-based critical pedagogy, feminist and poststructuralist approaches, and text analytic approaches. Critical discourse analysis would generally fall into this last category, aimed as it is at providing tools for the critical analysis of texts in context.).

Already, then, we can see a clear set of concerns across approaches to critical literacy and CDA: all are governed by a concern to understand texts and practices of reading. Writing is seen in relationship to questions of social change, cultural diversity, economic equity, and political enfranchisement. These approaches are concerned with questions of power and of change. There remain a number of unresolved concerns in this domain. These include the status of textual readings when no account is made of their interpretation by a wider audience; and the relationship between forms of linguistic and political analysis. They also need to avoid forms of socially over-determined meaning.

The amalgam of discourse analysis and theory has clearly produced a considerable body of interesting work. There is a need to explore the implications of poststructuralist frameworks for the status of both the linguistics and the politics.

Topic-082: Critical Approaches to Translation

Other domains of textual analysis related to critical applied linguistics include critical approaches to translation. Such approaches would not be concerned so much with issues such as “mistranslation” in itself, but rather the politics of translation, the ways in which translating and interpreting are related to concerns such as class, gender, difference, ideology, and social context.

Hatim and Mason’s (1997, pp. 153–9) analysis of a parallel Spanish and English text published in the UNESCO Courier is a good example of how a form of CDA across two texts reveals the ideological underpinnings of the translation.

In this case, as they argue, the English translation of a Spanish text on ancient indigenous Mexican cultures reveals in many of its aspects a very different orientation toward other cultures, literacy, and colonialism. Work on translation and colonial and postcolonial studies is also of interest for critical applied linguistics. Niranjana (1991), for example, argues that Translation as a practice shapes, and takes shape within, the asymmetrical relations of power that operate under colonialism.

Postcolonial translation studies, then, are able to shed light on the processes by which translation, and the massive body of Orientalist, Aboriginalist and other studies and translations of the Other, were, and still are, so clearly complicit with the larger colonial project. Once again, such work has an important role to play in the development of critical applied linguistics. It is indeed a shame that the monolingual biases of much mainstream applied linguistics have meant that translation has been marginalized as an applied linguistic domain. Critical approaches to translation might pose some very interesting challenges for applied linguistics.

Topic-083: Critical Approaches to Language Education

Language teaching has been a domain that has often been considered the principal concern of applied linguistics. Pennycook, 1999 suggested that we can identify three main features that define critical work in language teaching:

1. The domain or area of interest – to what extent do particular domains define a critical approach?
2. A self-reflexive stance on critical theory – to what extent does the work constantly question common assumptions, including its own? And transformative
3. Pedagogy – how does the particular approach to education hope to change things?

Thus, in trying to define critical applied linguistic work in language education, it is important to focus on the contextual concerns, be they issues of class, race, gender and so on, the ways in which the underlying framework relates to critical theory, and the ways in which the research or pedagogy is aiming to change what is going on. Again, we can see close parallels with the background concerns of critical literacy and CDA. There are also parallels with the distinction between research that turns a critical eye on an aspect of language education, and reports of critical practice.

Critical applied linguistic work in language education, then, may take as its central interest an attempt to relate aspects of language education to a broader critical analysis of social relations. Class is the principal concern addressed by Lin (1999) in her argument that particular ways of teaching English in

Hong Kong (or elsewhere) may lead either to the reproduction or the transformation of class-based inequality.

It is the inequalities in the relationship between the constructs of the native and non-native speaker that need to be addressed, a concern that has become a major topic of discussion in recent years.

Topic-084: Critical Language Testing

The main response to challenges about the “fairness” of language assessment has generally been to turn inward to questions of test validity rather than outward to the social, cultural, and political context of assessment. Spolsky (1995), however, in his history of the development of the TOEFL (Test of English as a Foreign Language) exam, is clear on the context in which this needs to be seen, suggesting that;

“...from its beginnings, testing has been exploited also as a method of control and power – as a way to select, to motivate, to punish.”

As he goes on to argue, the history of the TOEFL exam “best demonstrates the tendency for economic and commercial and political ends to play such crucial roles that the assertion of authority and power becomes ultimately more important than issues of testing theory or technology”

While such an approach locates assessment within a broader critical analysis of its relation to authority and power, it still lacks a way of suggesting what critical applied linguistic practice might emerge in response.

Kunnan (2000) goes some way toward this by considering not only questions of validity, but also issues of *access* (equitable financial, geographical, personal, and educational access to tests) and *justice*.

Shohamy (2000) pursues similar concerns when she insists that language testers need to take responsibility not only for their tests but also for the uses to which their tests are put:

“Language testers cannot remove themselves from the consequences and uses of tests and therefore must also reject the notion of neutral language testing.”

Topic-085: Critical Approaches to Language Planning and Language Rights

One domain of applied linguistics that might be assumed to fall easily into the scope of critical applied linguistics is work such as language policy and planning, since it would appear from the outset to operate with a political view of language. It is not enough merely to draw connections between language and the social world; a critical approach to social relations is also required.

There is nothing inherently critical about language policy; indeed, part of the problem, as Tollefson (1991) observes, has been precisely the way in which language policy has been uncritically developed and implemented. Ricento (2000) has similarly taken much of the earlier work in language policy and planning to account for its apolitical naivety.

More generally, the whole domain of sociolinguistics has been severely critiqued by critical social theorists for its use of a static, liberal view of society, and thus its inability to deal with questions of social justice.

Sociolinguistics says that how you act depends on who you are; critical theory says that who you are (and are taken to be) depends on how you act. Taking up Mey’s (1985) call for a “critical

sociolinguistics” (p. 342), therefore, critical applied linguistics would need to incorporate views of language, society, and power that are capable of dealing with questions of access, power, disparity, and difference, and which see language as playing a crucial role in the construction of difference. Questions about the dominance of certain languages over others have been raised most tellingly by Phillipson (1992) through his notion of (English) linguistic imperialism, and his argument that English has been spread for economic and political purposes, and poses a major threat to other languages.

Topic-086: Critical Approaches to Language, Literacy and Workplace Settings

Another domain of work in applied linguistics that has been taken up with a critical focus has focused on language and literacy in various workplace and professional settings. Such approaches also attempt to move toward active engagement with, and change in, these contexts.

Examples of this sort of work would include Wodak’s (1996) study of hospital encounters:

“In doctor– patient interaction in the outpatient clinics we have investigated, discursive disorders establish certain routines and justify the actions of the powerful. Doctors exercise power over their patients, they ask the questions, they interrupt and introduce new topics, they control the conversation.”

An important aspect of this work has been to draw connections between workplace uses of language and relations of power at the institutional and broader social levels. Recently, the rapid changes in workplace practices and the changing needs of new forms of literacy have attracted considerable attention.

Poynton goes on to discuss a project designed to change these workplace naming practices. One thing that emerges here is the way in which critical concerns are intertwined.

Topic-087: Critical Frameworks

Critical thinking is used to describe a way of bringing more rigorous analysis to problem solving or textual understanding, a way of developing more “critical distance” as it is sometimes called.

This form of “skilled critical questioning” (Brookfield, 1987, p. 92), which has recently gained some currency in applied linguistics (see Atkinson, 1997), can be broken down into a set of thinking skills, a set of rules for thinking that can be taught to students.

Similarly, while the sense of critical reading in literary criticism usually adds an aesthetic dimension of “textual appreciation,” many versions of literary criticism have attempted to create the same sort of “critical distance” by developing “objective” methods of textual analysis.

According to Widdowson (2001), applied linguistics, as a discipline that mediates between linguistics and language teaching, “is of its nature a critical enterprise.”

In this sense, “to be critical means the appraisal of alternative versions of reality, the recognition of competing claims and perspectives, and the need to reconcile them.” This means “taking a plurality of perspectives into account so as to mediate between them, seeking points of reciprocity, and correspondence as a basis for accommodation.”

For Widdowson, then, being critical is a process of evaluating different perspectives on a topic.

Critical applied linguistics can be seen as an attempt to make applied linguistics matter, to remake the connections between discourse, language learning, language use, and the social and political contexts in which these occur.

One of the key challenges for critical applied linguistics, therefore, is to find ways of mapping micro and macro-relations (but also to go beyond this micro/macro formulation), ways of understanding a relationship between concepts of society, ideology, global capitalism, colonialism, education, gender, racism, sexuality, and class, on the one hand, and classroom utterances, translations, conversations, genres, second language acquisition, or media texts, on the other.

It is not enough, therefore, merely to draw connections between micro-relations of language in context and macro-relations of social inquiry. Rather, such connections need to be drawn within a critical approach to social relations. That is to say, critical applied linguistics is concerned not merely with relating language contexts to social contexts, but rather does so from a point of view that views social relations as problematic.

Critical sociolinguistics is concerned with a critique of ways in which language perpetuates inequitable social relations. From the point of view of studies of language and gender, the issue is not merely to describe how language is used differently along gendered lines, but to use such an analysis as part of social critique and transformation.

A central element of critical applied linguistics, therefore, is a way of exploring language in social contexts that goes beyond mere correlations between language and society, and instead raises more critical questions to do with access, power, disparity, desire, difference, and resistance. It also insists on a historical understanding of how social relations came to be the way they are. Looking more broadly at the implications of this line of thinking, we might say that critical here means taking social inequality and social transformation as central to one's work.

Taking up Poster's (1989) comment that "critical theory springs from an assumption that we live amid a world of pain, that much can be done to alleviate that pain, and that theory has a crucial role to play in that process".

Topic-088: Conclusion

The arrival of critical applied linguistics on the applied linguistic scene has, not surprisingly, caused some concern. Davies (1999) argues that "the influence of CAL is pervasive and can be unhelpful". Critical applied linguistics not only opens up the intellectual framework to many diverse influences, but also makes debates over "linguistics applied" versus "applied linguistics" at best of peripheral interest. Critical applied linguistics as a constantly shifting and dynamic approach to questions of language in multiple contexts, rather than a method, a set of techniques, or a fixed body of knowledge. Rather than viewing critical applied linguistics as a new form of interdisciplinary knowledge, it should be preferred to view it as a form of *anti*-disciplinary knowledge, as a way of thinking and doing that is always problematizing. This means not only that critical applied linguistics implies a hybrid model of research and praxis, but also that it generates something that is far more dynamic.

Critical applied linguistics is far more than the addition of a critical dimension to applied linguistics, but rather opens up a whole new array of questions and concerns, issues such as identity, sexuality,

access, ethics, disparity, difference, desire, or the reproduction of Otherness that have hitherto not been considered as concerns related to applied linguistics.

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